

CRITICAL DISCOURSE ANALYSIS

(ENG 524)

MCQs [Answers]

Short Questions

Long Questions

Lecture-01

What is Critical Discourse Analysis (CDA)

Topic-01: Introduction to Discourse Analysis

The term **Discourse Analysis** was first introduced by Zelling Harris (1952) to examine: the language beyond the level of the sentence, relation between linguistic and non-linguistic behaviour. It looks at patterns of language across texts as well as the social and cultural contexts the texts occur. Ranges from textually-oriented views of discourse to socially-oriented views of discourse. Knowledge about language, beyond the word, clause, phrase and sentence, needed for successful communication. The relationship between language and context. Pragmatic view of language at the core of discourse analysis. The discourse structure of texts. Cultural ways of speaking and writing e.g. cultural ways of buying and selling.

Different Views/Aspects of DA

Discourse as the social construction of reality. Discourse and socially situated identities. The ways we make visible and recognizable who we are and what we are doing always involve more than just language (Gee, 2005, cited in Paltridge, 2008). Discourse and Performance 'a Discourse is a 'dance' (Gee, 2005, p. 19). While we say something, we also do it. Discourse and intertextuality.

Assumptions of Discourse Analysis

Four main assumptions:

a. *Language is ambiguous* - What things mean is never absolutely clear. All communication involves interpreting what other people mean.

b. *Language is always 'in the world'* - what language means is always a matter of where and when it is used and what it is used to do.

c. The way we use language is inseparable from who we are and the different social groups to which we belong. We use language to display different kinds of social identities.

d. Language is never used all by itself. It is always combined with other things such as our tone of voice, facial expressions and gestures when we speak, and the fonts, layout and graphics we use in written texts.

Topic-02: Discourse and Text

Meaning is the most important thing that makes a text; it has to *make sense* (Halliday). A text, in his view, is everything that is meaningful in a particular situation. And the basis for *meaning* is *choice* (Halliday 1978: 137). And the basis for *meaning* is *choice*. Different patterns of texture are associated with different types of texts. Devices are structured in a conventional way with a summary of the main points in the beginning and with the details coming later. The study of the social functions of different kinds of texts is called *genre analysis*. Mitchell (1957) was one of the first researchers to examine the *discourse structure* of texts. He looked at the ways in which people order what they say in buying and selling interactions. He looked at the overall structure of these kinds of texts, introducing the notion of *stages* into discourse analysis; that is the steps that language users go through. The notion of *genre* in discourse analysis goes beyond examining the conventional structures and features of different kinds of texts to asking what these structures and features can tell us about the people who use the texts and what they are using them to do. A genre is a recognizable communicative *event* characterized by a set of *communicative purposes*. Most often it is highly structured and *conventionalized* with *constraints* on allowable contributions in terms of their intent, positioning, form and functional value. Three important aspects of genres:

a. Genres are communicative events

b. Conventions and Constraints

c. Creativity

Different patterns of texture are associated with different types of texts. Newspaper articles, for example, tend to favor particular kinds of cohesive devices and are structured in a conventional way with a summary of the main points in the beginning and with the details coming later (e.g. see SectionC2).

Topic-03: The Emergence of CDA

CDS developed historically out of *Critical Linguistics* (CL), an approach to language study developed at the University of East Anglia. CL emphasizes on the role of ideology and power relations in the practice of language use and the persuasive power of syntactic forms, such as the passive and nominalized forms (Kress 1989). Critical Discourse Studies (CDS) is an interdisciplinary approach to language in use - how discourse figures in social processes, social structures and social change. CDS is practiced in a wide range of fields, apart from language studies, such as anthropology, business studies, geography, health studies, media studies, psychology and tourism studies. CDS is not a method of discourse studies, but a group of varying approaches each with distinctive, but also overlapping methods (Wodak and Meyer, 2016). CDA is a linguistic approach that emerged in the early 1990s and is based on the view that discourse - including written and spoken texts - is socially determined. (CDA) is a type of discourse analytical research that primarily studies the way social power abuse, dominance, and inequality are enacted, reproduced, and resisted by text and talk in the social and political context (Van Dijk). Investigates how social practices, events and texts are interrelated and arise out of and are ideologically shaped by relations of power (Fairclough, 1995).

CDA as a Method of Research

Views the systematic analysis and interpretation of texts as potentially revelatory of ways in which discourses consolidate power and colonize human subjects through often covert position calls (Locke, 2004).

The Aim of CDA

To help reveal hidden and 'often out of sight' values, positions and perspectives underlying texts (Paltridge, 2008). To unmask the strategies of discriminatory inclusion and exclusion in language in use (Wodak, 1992). The use of discourse in relation to social and cultural issues such as race, gender, politics, identity, ideology, etc.

Assumptions of CDA

Language use is always social. Discourse both reflects and constructs the social world. Discourses 'are always socially, politically, racially and economically loaded' (Rogers, 2004, p.6).

Topic-04: Key Scholars of CDA

Norman Fairclough

He began work on CDA in the early 1980s (see 'Critical and descriptive goals in discourse analysis', 1985) with the aim of linking his academic work to his political activities. He focused on discourse as an element in the production, maintenance and transformation of the existing socio-economic order and in political struggles for a better order. Discourse in Late Modernity 1999, and various more focused studies reflected in the revised and extended second edition of Critical Discourse Analysis (2010) as well as New Labour, New Language (2000) and Language and Globalization (2006). He focuses on the trans-disciplinary nature of CDA research. He has drawn upon the 'cultural political economy' of Jessop and Sum, but this work has centered upon a collaboration with Isabela Fairclough to bring argumentation theory and analysis into CDA (Political Discourse Analysis, Routledge 2012), a development which Isabela advocated in earlier publications. <https://lancaster.academia.edu/NormanFairclough>

Ruth Wodak

Ruth is Emeritus Distinguished Professor at Lancaster University - also affiliated to the University of Vienna. A project on the "Discursive Construction of National Identity - Austria 2015". The development of theoretical approaches in discourse studies (combining ethnography, argumentation theory, rhetoric, and text linguistics); identity politics and politics of the past; language and/in politics; racism, prejudice and discrimination. Combining several fields in discourse studies, she continues to develop **the Discourse-Historical Approach** in CDS, an interdisciplinary, **problem-oriented** approach which analyses the changes of discursive practices over time and in various genres.

Teun A. van Dijk

Teun A. van Dijk (1943) was professor of Discourse Studies at the University of Amsterdam until 2004. In the 90s, his work extended towards a more general study of the role of power and ideology in discourse and the reproduction of sociopolitical beliefs in society. His projects after 2000 are about discourse, context and knowledge. He has published in more than 250 articles. He holds three honorary doctorates and his work has been translated into a dozen

foreign languages (including Russian, Arabic, Chinese and Japanese). Teun A. van Dijk founded a Dutch linguistics journal and six international journals, Poetics, Text (now called Text & Talk), Discourse and Society, Discourse Studies, Discourse and Communication, and the internet journal in Spanish Discurso & Sociedad. <http://www.discourses.org/cv/Brief%20CV.pdf>

Topic-05: Approaches of CDA

Socio-cultural Approach

Fairclough – key proponent

Faircloughs' system of discourse analysis has three dimensions, since discourse is seen simultaneously as:

- (i) a text (spoken or written, including visual images),
- (ii) a discourse practice production, consumption and distribution of the text,
- (iii) a socio cultural practice.

Subsequently, Fairclough provides a three-dimensional framework for the analysis of text and discourse:

- (a) the linguistic description of the formal properties of the text;
- (b) the interpretation of the relationship between the discursive processes/interaction and the text.
- (c) the explanation of the relationship between discourse and social and cultural reality.

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Socio-Cognitive Approach

Van Dijk – key component

Van Dijk concentrates on social cognition as the mediating part between text and society. He claims that CDA needs to account for the various forms of social cognitions that are shared by the social collectivities (groups, organizations and institutions) (Van Dijk, 2001). He identifies two levels of (discourse) analysis; macro vs. micro. Language use, discourse, verbal interaction and

communication determine the micro level of social order, while the macro level refers to power, dominance and inequality between social groups (Van Dijk, 2003).

- <http://dx.doi.org/10.20431/2347-3134.0601002>

Discourse-Historical Approach

Ruth Wodak views discourse as a form of social practice. It problems in our society are too complex to be studied from a single point of view that "studies in CDA are multifarious, derived from quite different theoretical backgrounds" (Wodak, 2001:5).

Topic-06: Main Tenets of CDA

Fairclough and Wodak (1997: 271-80) summarize the main tenets of CDA as follows:

- CDA addresses social problems
- Power relations are discursive
- Discourse constitutes society and culture
- Discourse does ideological work
- Discourse is historical
- The link between text and society is mediated
- Discourse analysis is interpretative and explanatory
- Discourse is a form of social action.
- Critical discourse analysts take explicit position, and thus want to understand, expose, and ultimately resist social inequality.
- CDA has a purpose, clear-cut and strong message/ Socially Critical and analytical.

Lecture-02

Cultural Approach to CDA (CCDA)

Topic-07: CCDA as a Branch of CDA

Cultural Approach to Critical Discourse Analysis (CCDA) aims at exposing and examining the ways in which cultural codes are embedded in discourse, and contribute to the reproduction of abuses of power (Gavriely-Nuri 2013, 2015). Fairclough, CDA aims to shed light on the ways through which discourse helps to sustain social and political inequalities, abuses of power, and domination patterns (cf. Chilton 2004; Fairclough 1995). Teun A. van Dijk argues that CDA researchers should be interested not only in describing some interesting properties of political rhetoric, but also in explaining them. “In order to explain them, we need to relate them to such socio-cognitive representations as attitudes, norms, values and ideologies” (van Dijk 2007: 62). Shi-xu (2007) stated that since discourse is saturated with culture and cultural contestation in particular, we should refrain from reproducing dominant and repressive language as far as possible and try instead to use a culturally pluralistic, inclusive, critical, and egalitarian form of academic discourse. (Shi-xu 2007: 10)

Interdisciplinary Approach

CCDA, as an interdisciplinary approach, will house under one umbrella concepts such as ‘cultural memory,’ ‘cultural narratives,’ cultural representations’ and ‘cultural discourse analysis’ (Carbaugh 2007), as well as ‘the cultural turn’ (Fairclough 2003), ‘textual culture’ (Benwell 2005), ‘cultural scripts’ (Wierzbicka 1998), and many others.

Topic-08: CCDA: General Principles

CCDA focuses on the cultural aspects of any given ‘text’: verbal and non-verbal alike. This approach is guided by the following principles:

a) No text is independent of its cultural contexts. Rather than the deconstruction of linguistic structures, CCDA shall aim to uncover the cultural and cross-cultural codes embedded in discourse.

b) CCDA employs tools and methodologies taken from the discipline of Cultural Studies, such as the heuristic of decoding cultural codes.

c) Cross-cultural or multi-cultural perspectives facilitate the identification of unique elements of specific cultural codes and thus contribute to the process of decoding them.

d) Decoding cultural codes demands not only intimate familiarity with a community's language, culture and history, but also special awareness of the idea that "social and historical creation. . . is treated as a natural event or as the inevitable outcome of natural characteristics" (Thompson 1990: 66).

e) CCDA demonstrates that as far as the rhetoric of power is concerned, there is no difference between small and large cultural communities.

f) CCDA seeks to expose the 'global dictionary' of power and manipulation. It does so, for example, by focusing on specific metaphors and idioms such as 'axis of evil' or 'preemptive strike.'

g) CCDA analyses verbal and non-verbal practices (e.g., visual practices as well as cultural sites) alike, because it does not focus on the study of linguistic structures as such. That said, in this specific article I will focus mostly on verbal practices.

h) CCDA analyses factual and fictional discourses alike. This is based on the assumption that a fictional short story has the same ability as a political speech to act as a repository for cultural codes and assist the continuation of power abuses.

Topic-09: Cultural Codes and Discursive Strategies

CCDA aims to expose the specific discursive strategies that enable the exclusion or the symbolic annihilation of social objects. 'Strategy' is "the process by which ends are related to means, intentions to capabilities, objectives to resources" (Gaddis 2005 [1982]: VIII). Considering that a strategy is a combination of goals and means (Fairclough 2009 [2001]: 174), CCDA is interested in discursive 'means' (e.g., metaphors, narratives, frames) that promote specific 'goals' (i.e., political agenda or specific policy).

Topic-10: Critical Narrative Analysis-1

Souto-Manning (2014) has used the hybrid concept of CNA in her own research and proposed that “CNA unites CDA and narrative analysis in a mutually beneficial partnership that addresses both theoretical and methodological dilemmas in discourse analysis.”

Critical Narrative Analysis (CNA) II

Montesano, Montessori, and Morales Lopez (2015) define narrative as a powerful tool to depict a desired world or to envision alternatives to the status quo of any particular organisation, community, economic, or political system. They expressed this idea in the following words:

Critical Narrative Analysis (CNA) III

Narrative helps to rearticulate the status quo from an undesired version to a desired version, in which identities and concepts acquire new positions and new mutual relations. Narrative is a powerful tool in creating a new community and gaining its support or enthusiasm for a certain cause.

Critical Narrative Analysis (CNA) IV

Narrative is a powerful tool in creating a new community and gaining its support or enthusiasm for a certain cause.

Collective Narrative is a narrative that forms part of a group's identity. It is a story in a social and cultural context. It can also be defined as a story motivated by political interests and the wish to represent the consequences arising from such events in a way that reflects and serves political interests. Two 'mega' narratives for cultural construction. Cultural construction of social objects (such as a social group, a social phenomenon, or a social event) defines the social objects in one of two ways; either as a 'normal' object which forms part of normal life and normal society; or as a 'strange' object which does not form part of 'normal' life and normal society. Two mega-narratives are derived from this distinction, namely, one that 'normalizes' social objects and another that 'estranges' them.

Topic-11: Critical Narrative Analysis-2

A study published on War-Normalizing Narrative in Routledge Handbook of CDA. The concept of 'War-Normalizing Narrative' is in fact a set of strategies that aim to blur war's

anomalous character by creating the misconception that war is a ‘natural’ or ‘normal’ event for a given society. On the other hand, the ‘Peace-Estrangement Narrative’ is a set of strategies intended for creating doubt as to the positive connotation usually associated with the concept of peace. For example, war can be depicted as an opportunity to demonstrate courage and brotherhood, while the actual condition of peace may be described as inherently dangerous, and peace initiatives may be represented as deceptive. ‘War-Normalizing’ strategies and ‘Peace-Estrangement’ strategies appear in various verbal and non-verbal contexts: these include political speeches, op-eds, literature, films, caricatures, and even national ceremonies.

Strategies of Normalization:

- a) Euphemization – aims to color the social object in positive tones, in terms of its appearance, character, or valuation;
- b) Naturalization – aims to represent the social object as a force or event independent of human agency, or as an inevitable outcome of the laws of nature;
- c) Justification – aims to depict the social object as just, rational, worthy of support.

Strategies of Abstraction

Strategies of Abstraction are one of the most powerful strategies in the Israeli Peace-Estrangement discourse. The following strategies are included in this category:

Strategies of Distancing

A description that locates the targeted object in a distant conceptual realm. The description can be geographical, literal, conceptual, or metaphorical. The common narratives ‘peace is a dream’ and ‘peace in heaven’ are examples of distancing strategy.

Strategies of Impersonalization

An explanation of the relevant social object (e.g., peace) which removes the human factor and focuses on abstract organizational structures (i.e., movements, states). The penetration of the great powers to the vacuum created in the new states in Asia and Africa (Inbar 2000: 172). The escalation of the tensions between Jewish and Arab people in the 1920s and 1930s (Avieli-

Tabibian 2009: 41). New centers of power began to rise around the world (Inbar 2000: 176). At the end of the 1920s, a new wave of violent acts against Jewish people erupted (Avieli- Tabibian 2009: 43). All this increased the friction between Jewish and Arab people (Avieli-Tabibian 2009: 43). The leaders of the Arab nations used the hatred towards Israel as a way to consolidate their people (Naveh 1999: 158). A related discursive strategy is that of personifying the state by using body metaphors (Musolff 2004, 2010). For example: Europe was embroiled in a net of treaties and agreements which tied its hands and every small spark could have ignited the fire of war (Inbar 2004: 82). In the sixties security problems on [Israel's] eastern and northern borders intensified (Avieli-Tabibian 2009: 180).

EEV524 - Bitcoin by Maha Malik

Lecture-03

Introduction of Discourse Historical Approach-1

Topic-12: Introduction

In English-speaking countries, the label “Discourse-Historical Approach” and its acronym “DHA” stand for one of the most prominent critical approaches to the study of discourse. The label stresses the strong historical research interest of the approach. Many theoretical and also methodological concepts used in the DHA are equally valid for other strands in critical discourse studies—even if their contexts of emergence have led to different toolkits (e.g., Hart & Cap 2014; Wodak & Meyer 2015). The DHA is distinctive both at the level of research interest and methodological orientation (an interest in identity construction and in unjustified discrimination. A focus on the historical dimensions of discourse formation and on [national, local, transnational, and global] identity politics and the politics of the past). Oriented toward the critical theory of the Frankfurt School, and in particular toward Habermas’s language philosophy (e.g. Reisigl & Wodak, 2015). A detailed DHA ideally follows an eight-stage program.

1. Literature review, activation of theoretical knowledge (i.e., recollection, reading, and discussion of previous research);
2. Systematic collection of data and context information (depending on the research questions, various discourses, genres, and texts are focused on);
3. Selection and preparation of data for specific analyses (selection and downsizing of data, etc.);
4. Specification of the research questions and formulation of assumptions (on the basis of the literature review and a first skimming of the data);
5. Qualitative pilot analysis (this allows for testing categories and first assumptions as well as for the further specification of assumptions);
6. Detailed case studies (of a whole range of data, primarily qualitatively, but in part also quantitatively);

7. *Formulation of critique* (interpretation of results, taking into account the relevant context knowledge and referring to the dimensions of critique);

8. *Application of the detailed analytical results* (if possible, the results might be applied or proposed for application).

Topic-13: History of Discourse Historical Approach

A short history, segmented into four stages, may help to illustrate the multiplicity of relevant subjects and interests.

Phase 1: Viennese Critical Discourse Analysis *ante litteram* (1987–1993): The study for which the DHA was developed reconstructed the constitution of anti-Semitic stereotypes, as they emerged in (semi)public discourses.

Four features of the DHA emerged from this project:

A. Its interdisciplinarity and, especially, historical alignment

B. Teamwork

C. Triangulation of data, theories, as well as methods

D. The attempt to practically apply the findings.

The pioneering discourse-analytical research combined sociolinguistics and studies on narration, stylistics, rhetoric and argumentation with historical and sociological research. In the second half of the 1980s, additional DHA research was published (Examining news broadcasts and guidelines for non-sexist language use in administrative texts).

Phase 2: The DHA becomes institutionalized in Vienna (1993–1997). In the 1990s, the Discourse-Historical Approach was increasingly acknowledged as one of the main approaches to Critical Discourse Analysis. It was further developed in a number of studies, for example, a study on racist discrimination against migrants from Romania. A study on the discourse about the nation and national identity in Austria (Matouschek, Wodak and Januschek 1995; Wodak, et al. 1998, 2009 [1999]). The study analyses the relationships between the discursive construction of national sameness and difference, which leads to political and social exclusion of specific out-groups.

Phase 3; The third phase comprises the years of the Research Centre “Discourse, Politics, Identity” (1997–2003) in Vienna. Ruth Wodak founded the centre with her Wittgenstein Prize awarded in 1996. The prize allowed her to fund research projects analysing a wide range of subjects, and to support a large research team. The topics and social issues investigated between 1997 and 2003 were:

- Overt and covert forms of racism in political discourses in national parliaments of six EU member states, especially, in debates on asylum and migration (Wodak and van Dijk 2000);
- Internal communication in organisations of the European Union and discourses on unemployment in EU (Muntigl, Weiss and Wodak 2000).
- The discursive construction of European identities in German, British and French speeches of politicians (e.g. Wodak and Weiss 2005);
- The Austrian discourse on the enlargement of the European Union (Galasinska and Krzyz’anowski, 2008);
- Controversial debates on the issue of “permanent Austrian neutrality”, which was legally institutionalised in October 1945 (e.g. Kovacs and Wodak 2003);
- The controversial discourse on the role of the German Wehrmacht during World War II and on the two exhibitions about the “Crimes of the Wehrmacht”, organised by the Institute for Social Research in Hamburg (Heer et al., 2003, 2008).

Phase 4; Further internationalisation of the DHA (2004–present). Two research projects mark the transition from the third to the fourth phase:

- The first analysed the print-mediated discourse on the Constitution of the European Union (Oberhuber et al. 2005; Krzyz’anowski and Oberhuber 2007; Krzyz’anowski 2010);
- The second focused on discourses of integration, discrimination and migration in the European Union (Krzyz’anowski and Wodak 2008).
- In 2004, when Lancaster University offered a personal chair to Ruth Wodak, Lancaster became a second center of the DHA.
- In the following decade, the DHA prospered in the universities of Loughborough, Bern and Orebro.
- In Vienna, former research interests remain relevant, e.g. doctor-patient interaction, feminist critical discourse analysis, and political commemoration.

- Recently, Discourse historical analysts seem to be interested in right-wing populism and fascist discourses in Europe.
- Similarly, the discourses on environment and climate change.
- Various case studies embracing different genres - political posters, leaflets, comics, documentaries, etc., have been carried out in recent years.
- DHA is a flexible and productive variety of CDS that always opts for a problem-oriented perspective; demonstrates a clear preference for interdisciplinary research.
- Still, DHA has strong roots in linguistics.

Topic-14: Characteristics and Research Interests of DHA

The DHA is problem-oriented. This implies that the study of (oral, written, visual) language remains only a part of the research. The investigation must be interdisciplinary. In order to *analyze, understand, and explain* the complexity of the objects, many different and accessible sources of data are analyzed from various analytical perspectives. **The DHA is three-dimensional:**

(1) Specific contents or topics of a specific discourse are identified;

(2) discursive strategies are investigated;

(3) linguistic means are examined as types, and the specific, context-dependent linguistic realizations are examined as tokens.

The DHA does not just look at the historical dimension of discourses, but is – more extensively – concerned with the following areas of discourse studies: Discourse and discrimination (e.g. racism, ethnicism, nationalism, xenophobia, islamophobia, sexism); Language barriers in various social institutions (hospitals, court rooms, authorities, academic and media institutions); Discourse and politics/policy/polity (e.g. politics of the past/political commemoration, nation-building, European Union, migration, asylum, multilingualism, language policy, populism); Discourse and identity (e.g. national and supranational/European identity, linguistic identity); Discourse and history (e.g. National Socialism, fascism, commemoration, history of discourse studies); Discourse in the media (both classical print media and new social media); Organizational communication (e.g. in institutions of the European Union); Discourse and ecology (e.g. climate change). The Discourse-Historical Approach considers discourse analysis not just to be a method of language analysis, but a multidimensional project incorporating theory,

methods, methodology and empirically based research practices that yield concrete social applications.

Topic-15: Discursive Strategies in DHA

Nomination

Discursive construction of social actors discursive construction of objects, phenomena, events discursive construction of processes and actions. How are persons, objects, phenomena, events, processes and actions named and referred to linguistically in the discourse in question?

Predication

Discursive characterization of social actors, objects, phenomena, events processes and actions (e.g. positively or negatively). What characteristics or qualities are attributed to social actors, objects, phenomena, events, processes and actions mentioned in the discourse?

Argumentation

Persuading addressees of the validity of specific claims of truth and normative rightness. What arguments are employed in discourse?

Perspectivisation

Positioning the speaker's or writer's point of view and expressing involvement or distance. From what perspective are these nominations, attributions, arguments expressed?

Mitigation and Intensification

Modifying the illocutionary force of utterances in respect to their epistemic or deontic status. Are the respective utterances articulated overtly, are they intensified or mitigated?

Lecture-04

Discourse Historical Approach-II

Topic-16: The Concept of Critique

The term “critical discourse analysis” was introduced in the 1980s in order to mark a difference with allegedly descriptive discourse analysis. What Fairclough, van Dijk and others had in mind when they stood up for “Critical Discourse Analysis” initially was particularly the political meaning of social critique. Political critique means to judge the status quo, e.g., a specific discourse or (dis)order of discourse, against the background of an alternative (ideal) state and preferred values, norms, standards or criteria with respect to shortcomings or contradictions. At least three theoretical sources are relevant for the understanding of “critique”, as it prevails in the DHA.

(a) Critical Theory of the first generation (Adorno, Horkheimer, Benjamin) - inspires the DHA where it comes to criticising oppressive, discriminatory and exploitative ideologies, power abuse as well as the culture industry. Here, ideologies are suspected of justifying particular interests and social inequalities under the guise of common public interests.

(b) The relationship to Foucault can be characterised as a relationship of strong interest with various reservations. Foucault’s understanding of critique as an attitude and “the art of not being governed in this specific way and at this specific price” (Foucault 1990: 12) is taken up. This critique challenges the naturalisation of social relationships.

(c) Further central points of reference are the later Critical Theory of Jurgen Habermas, his discourse ethics and his theory of deliberative democracy (see Forchtner 2010, 2011). The four validity claims originally distinguished by Habermas serve as criteria for a differentiated concept of critique in the DHA: (theoretical) truth, (expressive) truthfulness, Normative rightness, comprehensibility

The validity claim of comprehensibility forms the basic claim for every communication. Particularly, the question of comprehensibility is in the center of research on language barriers in various social institutions (e.g., in doctor-patient interactions in hospitals; see Wodak, Menz and Lalouschek 1989). The question of truthfulness becomes especially crucial in studies on political or rhetorical manipulation and in studies of lying. However, the suspicion that a discourse

participant could be lying involves not just the validity claim of truthfulness, but also the validity claim of truth. The two validity claims of (theoretical) truth and normative rightness are central in almost all discourse-historical studies. Truth will often be at stake in political discourses about the past, in discourses about national identities (e.g., referring to national stereotypes) and in discourses about the causes and consequences of climate change. Questions of normative rightness are salient in political discourses justifying or criticising human actions in the past, in deliberative discourses evolving around the question of what should be done or shouldn't be done, in discourses involving discrimination, in discourse on climate change, etc. The DHA proposes to include critique in all of its stages, i.e., in the context of discovery, of justification and of application. **Three forms of critique in the DHA are:**

- the text or discourse immanent critique,
- the socio-diagnostic critique
- the prospective critique (see Reisigl and Wodak 2001: 32–35).

(a) Text or discourse immanent critique is primarily knowledge-related. It assesses conflicts, contradictions and inconsistencies in the text. e.g. with respect to cohesion, presuppositions, argumentation and turn-taking structures. This form of critique relies on rhetorical, text-linguistic, pragmatic, politico-linguistic and argumentation theoretical norms.

(b) Socio-diagnostic critique is both epistemic and deontic. It aims at exposing manipulation in and by discourse, at revealing ethically problematic aspects of discursive practices. It focusses on discrepancies between discursive and other social practices and functions as a form of social control. It relies on social, historical and political background knowledge. This critique includes the critique of ideology, the critique of the ethos of social actors, pragmatic critique, political critique and “social critique” (relating, for instance, to social recognition).

(c) Prospective critique is strongly application-oriented. It is practical, aimed at reducing dysfunctional communication and language barriers, at improving communication within public institutions by elaborating proposals and guidelines on the basis of careful fieldwork.

Topic-17: The Concept of Discourse

Ten features characterise the concept of discourse, as it is proposed by the Discourse-Historical Approach.

- (i) Discourse is a socially constituted as well as constitutive semiotic practice. In order to grasp the practical character of discourses, functionally oriented pragmatics is central.
- (ii) With respect to its socially constitutive character, discourse represents, creates, reproduces and changes social reality.
- (iii) With respect to its semiotic and pragmatic character, a discourse is a communicative and interactional macro-unit that transcends the unit of a single text or conversation.
- (iv) A discourse is composed of specific groups of actual texts, conversations, interactions and other semiotic events as well as action units. These concrete semiotic units are *tokens*, i.e., singular signs (in Peirce's terms, *sinsigns*). They serve specific purposes in social contexts, and are produced by somebody, distributed by somebody and received by somebody.
- (v) These actual discursive units relate to specific genres and other semiotic action patterns, i.e., to *types* (in Peirce's terms, *legisigns*).
- (vi) The discursive units belonging to a specific discourse are intertextually linked by a macro-topic that diversifies into various discourse topics, sub-topics, content-related argumentation schemes (*topoi*), etc.
- (vii) Discourses are situated within (political, economic, etc.) fields of action. The discursive units are functionally connected within these fields of action. Fields of action form the frames of discourses.
- (viii) Within these functional frames, discourses become parts of dispositifs and contribute to the constitution of social order are goal-oriented complexes or networks of discourse, knowledge, power and subject constitution. As parts of dispositifs, discourses help to organise, (re)produce and transform social relationships (including power relations) and social positions, institutions, knowledge and ideologies, identities and subjects, etc.
- (ix) Discourses develop around social problems. The problems become starting points of argumentation. Argumentation is both a verbal (partly also visual) and cognitive pattern of

problem-solving (see Kopperschmidt, 2000; Reisigl, 2014). These patterns surround claims of truth and/or claims of normative rightness. The claims are dealt with from different perspectives. Thus, a discourse involves multiple perspectives.

(x) Discourse undergoes historical change relating to social change. Historical change deserves special attention in the DHA. Discursive strategies may be included: Nomination, Predication, Argumentation, Perspectivisation, Mitigation and Intensification

Topic-18: The Concept of Context

Context is a key notion of Critical Discourse Studies (CDS). It has become a defining moment of discourse, because (critical) discourse analysts frequently conceive of discourse as “text in context”. CDS pay special attention to the social, political, historical and cognitive context. Context can be broken down into a macro, meso and micro-dimension. The Discourse- Historical Approach distinguishes among four dimensions of “context”:

(i) The immediate, language internal co-text and co-discourse regards thematic and syntactic coherences, lexical solidarities, collocations, connotations, implications, presuppositions and local interactive processes.

(ii) The intertextual and interdiscursive relationship between utterances, texts, genres and discourses (e.g. with respect to discourse representation, allusions, evocations) is a further contextual research dimension.

(iii) Social factors and institutional frames of a specific context of situation include: Degree of formality, place, time, occasion, addressees, interactive and political roles, political and ideological orientation, gender, age, profession, level of education, ethnic, regional, national, religious identities, etc.

(iv) On a meso- and macro-level, the broader sociopolitical and historical context is integrated into the analysis.

At this point, fields of action and the history of the discursive event as well as of discourse topics are looked at.

(a) The Discourse-Historical Approach pays special attention to the fourth dimension, the historical context. Three ways of doing a discourse-historical analysis can be distinguished: A discourse fragment or utterance is taken as a starting point, and its prehistory is reconstructed by relating the present to the past. To give an example: At the first glance, an utterance such as “We take care of your Carinthia” produced by three Austrian politicians of the right-wing populist party BZO in a regional election campaign in 2009 may seem to be “harmless”. The seemingly “innocent” character gets lost if a discourse-historical analysis – interested in *recontextualisation* – a crucial concept for the analysis of the historical dimension of discourses.

(b) A diachronic series or sequence of thematically or/and functionally connected discourse fragments or utterances is taken as a starting point, and their historical interrelationships are reconstructed within a specific period. This way, specific discourse elements can be related to each within a particular period of the past, e.g., a period of some months, years, etc.

(c) A third way consists in the critical analysis of how different social actors, e.g., politicians in contrast to historians, talk, write, sing, etc. about the past, and in the comparison of the different semiotic representations with respect to claims of truth, normative rightness and truthfulness.

Lecture-05

Fairclough's Model of CDA

Topic-19: Introduction: Theoretical Position of CDA

Fairclough (1993) defines CDA as discourse analysis that aims to explore relationship of causality and determination between **discursive practices, events and texts**. And how discursive practices, **events and texts are ideologically** shaped by relation of 'power' and 'struggle over power'.

Fairclough's Definition

A critical discourse analysis differs from 'lay' critique in its 'systematic approaches to inherent meanings'. Its reliance on '**scientific procedures**' and the necessity as it sees it to include the 'self-reflection of the researchers themselves' (Fairclough and Wodak 1997: 279).

Theorists' View on CDA

Fairclough claims that there are some approaches to CDA which neglect or play down the discourse practice dimension and intertextuality. For example, the work of (Boden and Zimmerman 1991, Drew and Heritage 1992). On relationships between '**talk-in interaction**' and social structure. Schegloff (1992) has given a criteria under which appeal to the traditional categories of social structure in textual analysis can be minimized, for example: In a **mixed gender job interview** the category of participant gender may apparently be irrelevant or inconsequential on Schegloff's criteria. Various approaches to Discourse Analysis, i.e. Birmingham school (Sinclair and Coulthard 1975), ignore an important type of variability in language use (discourse), e.g. *Appropriateness theory of language variability* - which assumes a rather straightforward matching between types of social situation and language varieties (Fairclough, 1995). For example, the hidden variability is the variability of practice within particular social situations – within the lesson, within the medical consultation, within the media interview. According to Fairclough, the category of **power, social class and Ideology** should also be kept in mind while doing Discourse Analysis. Fairclough has adapted the concept of order of discourse from **Foucault (1981)** to refer to the ordered set of discursive practices associated with a particular social domain or institution, e.g. *the lecture, the seminar, counselling, and informal conversation, in an academic institution;*

and boundaries and relationships between them (Fairclough, 1995). Discursive practices may have their own limitations in different relationships. As different **discursive practices** are used in different social situations, but they may also be alternatives in the same social situation, and may be in relationships of opposition on the basis of theoretical or ideological positions. Fairclough has described the discourse practice dimension of the framework as concerned with the **production, consumption** and **distribution** of texts.

Distribution, how texts circulate within orders of discourse, can be investigated in terms of 'chain' relationships (as opposed to paradigmatic or 'choice' relationships) within discourse-orders. There are more or less settled chains of discursive practices within and between orders of discourse across which texts are shifted and transformed in systematic ways (Fairclough 1992). For instance, in the mass media, there are chains connecting various public orders of discourse (politics, law, science, etc.)

Ideological analysis has recently been criticized from various perspectives, i.e. any form of ideological critique presupposes that the critic has **privileged access to the truth** (Foucault 1979).

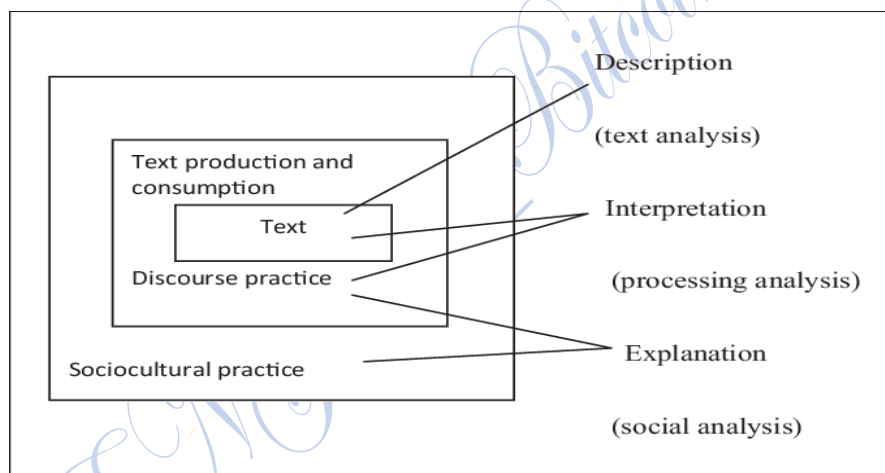
Topic-20: Aspects of Fairclough's Model 3D Approach

Fairclough's 3D model consists of three stages: **description, interpretation** and **explanation**.

1. In the first stage **description**, the text should be described as rigorously and as comprehensively as possible relative to the analytical focus. (Fairclough, 1995). Linguistic features such as choices in vocabulary (wording), grammar (transitivity, passivization) and text structure (thematic choice, turn-taking system) are systematically analysed. Concerned with formal properties of text. How people encode their thoughts through words. Systematicity in the description stage is important since this helps ground interpretation of how the text might lead to different discourses for different readers in different situations of language use, e.g. a political speech, a chat between strangers at a bus stop or a debate on Twitter.

2. The focus in the **interpretation stage** is concerned with the ways to hypothesize the cognition of readers/listeners, how they might mentally interact with the text. Fairclough refers to this as ‘**processing analysis**’. Relationship between the discourse and its production and its consumption should be interpreted. Discourse is not only regarded as text but also a discursive practice in this stage. Apart from analyzing linguistic features and text structure, attention may be drawn to other factors such as speech acts and intertextuality. These factors link the text to its context. Criticism on **interpretation stage** is that some significant information related to cognition may be absent from a particular text, which leads to the reader either being misled or not being fully apprised of the most relevant facts. (Chouliaraki and Fairclough 1999: 33). **Interpretation stage** also seeks to show how wider social and cultural contexts and power relations within them.

3. In **explanation**, CDA critically explains connections between **texts** and **discourse** circulating in the wider social and cultural context; the ‘**sociocultural practice**’. Critique here involves showing how the ‘ideological function of the misrepresentation or unmet need’ helps ‘**in sustaining existing social arrangements**’ (Chouliaraki and Fairclough 1999: 33).



Further Debate

Fairclough considers ‘language’ and ‘order of discourse’ as two **centripetal forces** in any discursive event. **Inter-textual** analysis links the text and discourse practice dimensions of the framework, and shows how a text actualizes and extends the potential within orders of discourse. But in referring to **language use** as discourse, Fairclough has investigated it in a social-

theoretically informed way, as a form of social practice. Fairclough thinks that we need a suitable **theory of language** for discourse analysis, such as Halliday's (1978, 1985) because: **Language use is always simultaneously constitutive of**

- (i) social identities,
- (ii) social relations and
- (iii) systems of knowledge and belief - though with different degrees of salience in different cases.

According to Fairclough, language use is constitutive in both conventional, socially reproductive ways, and creative, socially transformative ways, with the emphasis upon the one or the other in particular cases depending upon their social circumstances (Fairclough, 1995).

Topic-21: Discourse and Socio-cultural Change

Fairclough mentions **macro domain** of discourse, i.e. political talk, government policies while, keeps discourse at place work in **micro-domain**. He has used a term “**technologization of discourse**” as top-down intervention to change discursive within orders of discourse, i.e. from politics (macro) to ‘work place (micro)’. Fairclough has argued that the link between sociocultural practice and the other two dimensions involves the integration of 'macro' and 'micro' analysis of discursive events, where the former includes analysis of discourse **technologization** processes (Fairclough, 1995). On one side, no instance of discursive practice can be interpreted without **reference to its context**; On the other hand, 'macro' phenomena such as technologization of discourse cannot be properly analyzed **without the evidence of their actual effects** on practice, which comes from analysis of discursive events. Specifically, he considers the role of discourse in a range of major contemporary **cultural changes** which have been thematized in recent sociological analysis: shifts towards '**post traditional**' forms of social life, more reflexive forms of social life, and a '**promotional culture**' (Fairclough, 1995).

Fairclough extracted examples from advertisements for academic posts, materials for a conference, a curriculum vitae, and undergraduate prospectuses for his research. For CDA he also focused on conversation between institutional managements and academic staff or students. Fairclough has suggested that humour is a design feature of the mixed genre of the programme; participants are shown to be orientating to a ground rule that requires any serious political talk to

be lightened with humor (Fairclough, 1995). Being a student of CDA, you can also look forward to these domains for your research.

Topic-22: Textual Analysis in Social Research

Textual analysis in **social researches** is seen as comprising two different, and complementary, forms of analysis: **linguistic analysis** and **intertextual analysis**. **Linguistic analysis** covers traditional levels of analysis within linguistics, i.e. phonology, grammar up to the level of the sentence, and vocabulary and semantics, etc. **Linguistic-Analysis** also covers textual organization above the sentence, including inter-sentential cohesion and various aspects of the structure of text including properties of dialogue such as the organization of turn-taking, etc. (Fairclough, 1995). According to Fairclough, in social researches, **textual analysis** is better than other methods to capture sociocultural processes in the course of their occurrence, in all their complex, contradictory, incomplete and often messy materiality. CDA is not just another form of academic analysis. But it also helps to create critical awareness of language for those ordinary people who are not familiar with linguistic-discursive forms of domination and exploitation (Fairclough, 1995). Bakhtin's writings on text and genre (especially Bakhtin, 1986) contain a sustained argument for intertextual analysis as a necessary complement to linguistic analysis, and that argument has recently been vigorously supported by, amongst others, social semioticians such as Kress and Threadgold (1988) and Thibault (1991). **Intertextual analysis**; text is dependent on society and history in the form of the resources made available within the order of discourse, genres, discourses, etc. **Genres** according to Bakhtin are 'the drive belts from the history of society to the history of language' (1986: 65). **Intertextual analysis** consequently presupposes accounts of individual genres and types of discourse, e.g. the accounts of conversation which have been produced by conversation analysts, or accounts of what are sometimes called '**registers**', such as language of doctors and engineer may be considered different. In **social researches**, intertextual analysis crucially mediates the connection between **language** and **social context**, and facilitates bridging of the gap between texts and contexts, referring to Fairclough's 3D framework for discourse analysis in which intertextual analysis occupies this mediating position (Fairclough, 1989, 1992a).

Lecture-06

CDA and Context

Topic-23: Definition of Context

Blommaert (2005: 251) **defines** context as “the totality of conditions under which discourse is being produced, circulated and interpreted”. Van Dijk (2005: 237) **defines** context as “the cognitive, social, political, cultural and historical environments of discourse” (original emphasis).

Further Characterization

Early approaches used various metaphors to depict context. Goodwin and Duranti (1992) adopt the metaphor of figure as **text** and ground as **context**. Other researchers prefer to focus on levels of context. Halliday & Hasan (1985) distinguish **text**, **co-text**, **context of situation** and **context of culture**. In addition to co-text, Wodak (2002) includes in her model of context the other texts and discourses; the conditions of text production, distribution and reception, the wider socio-political context (Flowerdew, 2018). Text and context are generally construed to be in a “mutually reflexive” relationship where text influences context and context influences text (Goodwin and Duranti 1992: 31; also van Dijk 2008). Analysis, according to this view, involves a continual shunting between text and context (Fairclough, Mulderrig and Wodak 2011). **The process by which text and context come together in the creation of meaning is referred to as contextualization**, i.e. by text, we nowadays mean any semiotic feature, including signs, symbols and physical embodiment (Flowerdew, 2018). According to van Dijk (2008), **contextualization** is regulated by ‘**K-device**’: which is the mutual knowledge shared by speaker and hearer. Knowledge – which may be personal, interpersonal, group, institutional, national or cultural – is invoked in the discourse processing (Van Dijk, 2005).

Context is dynamic, changing as the discourse progresses (Goodwin and Duranti 1992; O’Halloran, Tan and E 2014). It is also negotiated between the participants in a discourse, depending upon their mental models. Where mental models do not match, there may be misunderstanding. Power, which, as Foucault emphasizes, is another important contextual feature (e.g., Rabinow 1991) may decide which interpretation is to prevail. A particular type of **contextual relation** that has received a lot of attention in CDS is that of **intertextuality** (Bakhtin 1981;

Kristeva 1980), the process whereby textual features of one text reappear in another. This means that an individual text may not be analyzed without considering other prior texts with which it may relate.

Identity is the image one has of oneself or is held by others and which can apply to individuals or to groups, although not usually mentioned as a feature of context, is also an important contextual factor, because the image one has of oneself or of others will affect one's interpretation of their actions and motivations (Flowerdew, 2018).

Topic-24: Early Models of Context

Malinowski, Firth, Halliday, Sapir and Whorf

Since de Saussure's (1977 [1916]) distinction between *langue* and *parole* and Chomsky's later (1965) separation of competence from performance, there has been a trend in linguistic theory to deny a role for context and to focus on the **decontextualized sentence**. At the same time, however, other, more socially oriented linguists emphasized the importance of context in the interpretation of utterances. As the anthropologist **Malinowski** famously stated:

A word without **linguistic context** is a mere figment and stands for nothing by itself, so in the reality of a spoken living tongue, the utterance has no meaning except in the context of situation. **Firth and Halliday** emphasized on the role of context, distinguishing between the context of situation and the broader context of culture (Halliday 1999: 7). At the same time, **Sapir and Whorf**, more cognitive in orientation, developed the idea of a language representing the **mental life** of its speakers. Thus, Sapir-Whorf hypothesis states that the culture underlying a language represents the context within which that language will be interpreted (e.g. Pinker, 1994).

Hymes

Another influential model of context has been represented by Hymes's (1962) speaking mnemonic, a set of features that can be used in interpreting any utterance. Hymes's model was originally developed for his ethnography of communication, but has also been applied more widely. **Following are the speaking mnemonics proposed by Hymes:**

Setting: Physical or abstract setting (e.g. office service)

Participants: Speaker, hearer, overhearer

Ends: purpose, goals and outcomes.

Act Sequence: form the event taken place, ordering of speech acts, etc.

Key: Tone, manner, spirit of the speech acts.

Instrumentalities: Channel or mode (e.g., telephone, spoken or written)

Norms: Norms of interaction and interpretation.

Genre: Type of speech event (e.g. story, joke, lecture).

Pragmatics: Gricean pragmatics assigns an essential role in communication to context (Grice 1989 [1967]; Sperber and Wilson, 1995). Grice's cooperative principle - the interpretation of utterances is an inferential process, based on rational thought and context. (1989 [1967]). As Polyzou puts it, “**cognitive pragmatics** accounts provide the potential for accounting for the impact of context on discourse and of discourse on context, mediated by the cognitions of the participants in discursive and social action” (John Flowerdew, 2018). Presupposition, indirect speech acts, irony, and face and politeness phenomena are **other features** dealt within pragmatics which depend upon context for their **interpretation**. Analysis of such contextual features makes it possible to reveal the implicit assumptions that may lay behind a given utterance. One critique of pragmatic approaches to CDS is that, while pragmatics does involve inference and therefore context, it is too **individualistic** and takes an idealized view of communication and fails to take into account **socio-contextual factors** and **power imbalances** in interaction (Fairclough 2001).

Topic-25: Recent Models of CDA

Conversation Analysis (CA)

CA views context as constructed moment by moment through conversational moves (Bhatia, Jones and Flowerdew 2008: 16). There are in fact two views here: a strong view and a weak view. **Strong view** of Schegloff (e.g. 1987) emphasizes that the evidence of context needs to be located in the sequence of speaker turns. The **weaker view** argues for going outside the immediate interactional context to the institutional context to arrive at a more grounded analysis

(e.g. Drew and Heritage, 1993). **CA** allows critical discourse analysts to do fine-grained analysis of naturally occurring data in real-life contexts. Given the critique of the strong view of not going outside the text, combining CA with other social research methodologies, such as ethnography, may help to counter these criticisms (Flowerdew 2012).

Systemic Functional Linguistics (SFL)

An approach to grammar and discourse that has a **three-dimensional model of context**:

Field of discourse, i.e. the subject matter of the text.

Tenor of discourse, i.e. the relations between the participants and their attitudes (as presented in the discourse).

Mode of discourse -the channel, i.e. speech or writing and rhetorical role (i.e. didactic, persuasive, aggressive, etc.) (Bloor and Bloor, p. 154). These three dimensions work together to constitute different varieties of language, i.e., registers (Halliday, McIntosh and Stevens 1964).

Systemic Functional Linguistics enables critical discourse analysts to identify form-function links and thereby to relate language form to context (Fairclough, 2003). Proponents of **SFL** argue that SFL is still the only school with a robust model to link text and context systematically (Flowerdew, 2018).

Ethnographic Approaches

These approaches owe much to American anthropological linguistics (e.g. Hymes 1962) and regard social context as the **central aspect** of communication. Influence on CDS encouraging analysts to rely relatively less on close analysis of linguistic data and more on text-external social and contextual factors.

Cognitive Linguistics

The cognitive linguistics approach to discourse views contexts as mental models as ultimately constructed in the cognitive systems of interacting group members (van Dijk, 2009). Evidence for the mental conceptualization of context can be found by tracking patterns in language use. For example, the study of **conceptual metaphor** can reveal ideological functions (Charteris-

Black, 2004) or, in a rather different approach, grammatical patterning may also be related to ideological functions (Hart, 2014). Includes a cognitive interface between **discourse** and **society** - an analysis of the interpretation stage of discourse.

Corpus Linguistics

It is the study of the text/context interface in order to compare the use of language in a specific corpus of text and a reference corpus, to show how **language-use** in a specific context varies from general context. **Corpus Linguistics** allows CDS to work with much larger data volumes, thus reducing researcher bias (Hardt-Mautner 1995). CDA and genreAllows CDS to qualitatively and quantitatively examine a given language feature's collocational environments, semantic patterns and discourse functions (Hardt-Mautner 1995). **Corpus Linguistics has been criticized for decontextualizing data and for limiting the analysis to a bottom-up type of investigation** (Widdowson, 2004).

Multi-Modal Discourse Analysis (MMDA)

This type of analysis involves all semiotic systems, not just language use. MMDA is influenced by the work of Halliday (1978) and was pioneered by Kress and van Leeuwen (1996) (both followers of Halliday and CDS practitioners). **MMDA focusses “specifically on how different semiotic resources are deployed in the re-contextualization of social practices for ideological purposes”.** An interesting example of critical MMDA is study on televised and online news - construe discourse, context and culture” (O’Halloran, 2014: 249).

Lecture-07

CDA and Genre (I)

Topic-26: Introduction of Genre

Genres are ways in which people ‘get things done’ through their use of **spoken** and **written** discourse. We use language in particular ways according to the **content** and **purpose** of the genre, the relationship between us and the audience we are writing for or speaking to. Looking at the use of language in particular genre, we also need to focus on **social** and **cultural context**. In the era of technology, internet introduced new **forms of communication** such as WhatsApp groups, chat rooms, blogs and online discussion forums which can have different genres (Paltridge, 2002).

Defining Genre

Martin’s (1984 : 25) defines genre as ‘**a staged, goal-oriented, purposeful activity in which speakers engage as members of our culture**’. We participate in genres with other people; **goal-oriented** because we use genres to get things done; **staged** because it usually takes us a few steps to reach our goals. Swales (2004 : 61) prefers the notion of ‘**metaphor**’ for talking about genres, rather than ‘definition’. He considers that definitions are often not ‘true in all possible worlds and all possible times’ and can ‘prevent us from seeing newly explored or newly emerging genres for what they really are’. Miller’s (1984) notion of ‘**genre as social action**’ has been especially important in the area known as **rhetorical genre studies** (Artemeva 2008 , Schryer 2011). In this view, a genre is defined, not in terms of ‘the substance or the form of discourse but on the **action** it is used to accomplish’ (Miller 1984: 151). This **action** is recognized by other people and the genre is accepted, over time, as a way of doing something. **Genre**, thus, is a kind of ‘social agreement’ (Miller and Bazerman 2011) about ways of doing things with language in particular social and cultural settings. Miller also discusses the notion of **typification**. **Typification** is, there are typical forms a genre might take as well as typical content and typical action that the genre performs, all of which we recognize and draw on as we engage with the use of genres (Paltridge, 2002).

Topic-27: Choice and Constraints in the Use of Genre

Drawing on the work of Devitt (1997), Swales (2004) - the view of genre in which there are both choices and constraints, regularity and chaos. **Genres are dynamic and open to change, but it is not a case of ‘free for all’ or ‘anything goes’.** As Devitt (2004 : 86) explains, conformity among genre users ‘is a fact of genre, for genres provide an expected way of acting’ and further argue is that **constraint** and **choice**, are necessary and positive components of genres. In Bhatia’s (1998 : 25–6) words: Practicing a genre is almost like playing a game, with its own rules and conventions. Bhattia considers the art of genre as a game in which writers and readers play skillfully and succeed by their manipulation and exploitation. Therefore, it is important to learn not only language; but the rules of that game in order to exploit and manipulate them to fulfil professional and disciplinary purposes.

Topic-28: Relationship between Genres

According to Paltridge, the use of one genre may assume or depend on the use of a number of other interrelated genres. An example of this is the academic essay which may draw from and cite a number of other genres such as **academic lectures, specialist academic texts** and **journal articles** (Paltridge, 2002). Uhrig (2012) in one of his researches, found that genre differed for each Law and MBA student in their final assessment, i.e. In law, informal study group sessions, summaries of legal cases were especially important, whereas for MBA students class discussions and oral presentations of business cases made important contributions to their assessment outcomes. Uhrig argues that in order to assist students examine just the final assessments, we need to find out more about the genres they take part in as they prepare for these assessments. Cope (2009) found a complicated genre in the application process for the students who intend to apply for admission to vocational colleges (Paltridge, 2002). The students had to engage in a range of spoken and written genres each of which was interconnected with the other, as well as have almost an insider’s understanding of how to stand the greatest chance of being admitted to their preferred course of study. Some courses had ‘walk-in’ enrolment where students are allocated a place on a first-come, first-served basis. This type of genre forced them to stand up in the queue early in the morning, at 6 am or so, or they stood no chance of being admitted to the course, no matter how well they had read the course guide, how well they had sought advice from the student counsellor or how well they had completed the application form (Paltridge, 2002). Job interviews contain a

network of genre including job advertisement, the position description, the letter of application and the resumé which show interrelatedness of genres. They are also followed by an offer of appointment and, a negotiation of offer, each of which interrelate closely with the genres which precede them.

Topic-29: Genre Analysis and Various Forms of Writing

Some recent studies have examined the discourse structures of research articles, master's theses and doctoral dissertations, job application and sales promotion letters, legislative documents, the graduate seminar, academic lectures, poster session discussions and the texts that students read in university courses (Swales, 1981, 1990). One model that has had a particular impact in this area is what has come to be known as the CARS (Create a research space) framework (Feak and Swales, 2011). This framework describes the typical discourse structure of the Introduction section of research articles. Swales shows how in this section of research article introductions authors establish the territory for their research by showing how it is important and relevant in some way, indicate the gap in previous research that the study aims to address and how the study being described will fill the gap that the earlier sections of the Introduction have identified. Other analyses have focused on how microgenres (Martin and Rose 2008), or rhetorical types, such as arguments and descriptions, etc. come together in the writing of academic genres such as student assignments and essays, etc. (Paltridge 1996 , 2002, Paltridge et al. 2009).

Language and Academic Writing

There have been a number of views on the nature of genre-specific language. Hutchinson and Waters (1987) made a distinction between the language of an area of specialization and the language of the genres found in these particular areas - the use of technical and specialized vocabulary rather than in its use of genre-specific language. Biber (1988) concludes a study that different kinds of texts are complex in different ways and that many earlier conclusions that have been reached about specific purpose language reflect our incomplete understanding of the linguistic characteristics of discourse complexity (Biber, 1992). In his view, there clearly are language differences between genres. These differences, however, can only be revealed through the examination of actual texts rather than through any intuitions we may have about them.

Academic Writing and Meta-Discourse

The term **meta-discourse** was first coined by the linguist Zellig Harris (1959) to describe the way in which a writer or speaker tries to guide their audience's perception of their text (Hyland, 2005). According to Hyland (1998), meta-discourse includes interactive rhetorical features which reflect the writer's awareness of their audience, its interests and expectations and interactional rhetorical features which include the ways in which authors convey judgements and align themselves with their readers (Hyland 2005). **Interactive meta-discourse** resources further guide the readers how to understand ways of expressing relations between clauses, the stages of the text, information that is in other parts of the text, information that has been drawn from other texts and ways of elaborating on meanings in the text (Paltridge, 2002). **Interactional meta-discourse** resources further include the ways in which writers express their stance towards what they are saying as well as how they explicitly engage with or address their readers in their texts (Hyland, 2005).

Stance is the ways in which writers present themselves and convey their judgements, opinions and commitments to their own and other people's work. In doing this, a writer may either 'intrude to stamp their personal authority onto their arguments, or step back and disguise their involvement'.

Engagement is the strategy writers use to acknowledge and recognize the presence of their readers, 'pulling them along with their argument, focusing their attention, acknowledging their uncertainties, including them as discourse participants and guiding them to interpretations' (Hyland 2005: 176).

Topic-30: Steps in Genre Analysis

Bhatia (1993) and Bawarshi and Reiff (2010) present steps for carrying out the analysis of genres, in their case, written genres. For example, we may decide to take a '**text first**' or a '**context-first**' approach to the analysis of a particular genre (Flowerdew, 2002, 2011). The **first step**, however, is to collect samples of the genre the researcher is interested in. Bhatia suggests taking a few randomly chosen texts for **exploratory investigation**, a single typical text for **detailed analysis**, or a larger sample of texts if we wish to investigate a few **specified features** (Paltridge, 2002). The **next step** is to consider what is already known about the particular genre. This includes knowledge of the **setting** in which it occurs or **conventions** associated with genre. For information on this, we can go to existing literature such as guide books and manuals as well

as seek practitioner advice on the particular genre. We next need to **refine the analysis** by defining the speaker or writer of the text, the audience of the text and their relationship with each other. That is, who uses the genre, who writes in the genre, who reads the genre and what roles the readers perform as they read the text (Paltridge, 2002). We also need to **consider the goal, or purpose, of the texts**. That is, **why** do writers write this genre, **why** do readers read it and **what** purpose does the genre have for the people who use it? For example, some particular advertisements are written to manipulate a particular social class or a gender. A **further important** consideration is typical discourse patterns for the genre. That is, **how** are the texts typically organized, how are they typically presented in terms of layout and format and what are some language features that typically re-occur in the particular genre? In genre analysis, we also need to focus on the values, beliefs and assumptions (Bawarshi and Reiff, 2010). We should also think about the networks of texts that surround the genre and to what extent knowledge of these is important in order to be able to write or make sense of a particular genre (Paltridge, 2002).

Topic-31: The Social and Cultural Context of Genres

An important stage in genre analysis is to examine the **social** and **cultural** context in which the genre is used. In the case of a written text, factors that might be considered include: setting, focus and perspective of text, role and purpose of text, background knowledge or values/beliefs, etc. (Paltridge, 2002). Here, a context analysis of theses and dissertations is being presented as an example.

Setting of the text

The kind of university and level of study, the kind of degree (e.g. honours, master's or doctoral, research or professional) Study carried out in a 'hard' or 'soft', pure or applied, convergent or divergent area of study (Becher and Trowler, 2001).

Focus and perspective of the text

Quantitative, qualitative or mixed method research claims that can be made; claims that cannot be made faculty views on what is a 'good' research.

Purpose of the text

To answer a question, to solve a problem, to prove something, to contribute to knowledge, to display knowledge and understanding, to demonstrate particular skills, to convince a reader, to gain admission to a particular area of study (Paltridge, 2002).

Audience, role and purpose in reading the text

To judge the quality of the research. Primary readership of one or more examiners; secondary readership of the supervisor and anyone else the student shows their work to. How readers will react to what they read, the criteria they will use for assessing the text?

Relationship between writers and readers of the text

Students writing for experts, for admission to an area of study (the primary readership), students writing for peers, for advice (the secondary readership).

Expectations, conventions and requirements for the text

An understanding and critical appraisal of relevant literature. A clearly defined and comprehensive investigation of the research topic. Appropriate the use of research methods and techniques for the research question. Ability to interpret results, develop conclusions and link them to previous research. Level of critical analysis, originality and contribution to knowledge expected. Literary quality and standard of presentation expected. Level of grammatical accuracy required. How the text is typically organized, how the text might vary for a particular research topic, area and kind of study and research perspective. What is typically contained in each chapter. The amount of variation allowed in what and how should be addressed. The university's formal submission requirements in terms of format, procedures and timing.

Background knowledge, values and understandings

It is assumed students will share with their readers – what is important to their readers, what is not important to their readers. What issues students should address, what boundaries students can cross.

Relationship the text has with other texts

How to show the relationship between the present research and other people's research on the topic, what counts as valid previous research, acceptable and unacceptable textual borrowings, differences between reporting and plagiarizing (Paltridge, 2002).

EGN524 – Bitcoin by Maha Malik

Lecture-08

CDA and Genre (II)

Topic-32: The Discourse Structure of Genres

Discourse structure of genres can be analyzed through different ways, i.e. by identifying its generic structure based on its **genre category membership** such as letter to the editor, doctoral dissertation, etc. Another way is to look at **rhetorical types** such as argument, description and problem–solution that occur within the text. **Two different perspectives, can be offered on the structure of texts: one that identifies the text’s generic structure based on its genre category and another that describes its rhetorical structure** based on its patterning of rhetorical organization. These **rhetorical types** together make up larger, more complex texts. Paltridge’s study shows that, rather than there being just the one single type of discourse pattern that is typical for theses and dissertations, there are at least four different types of patterns that writers typically choose from depending on the focus and orientation of their thesis or dissertation. Paltridge presents a comparison made between the texts in order to see if there is a recurring pattern of structural organization across the set of texts. Following previous research on the topic, these four thesis and dissertation types are labelled ‘simple traditional’, ‘complex traditional’, ‘topic-based’ and ‘compilations of research articles’. In his book, Paltridge has focused on the analysis of an abstract from a doctoral dissertation in terms of both its generic and rhetorical structures. In this example, the text follows the typical generic structure for a dissertation abstract (Paltridge and Starfield 2007 , Swales and Feak 2009). It is also an example of a **problem–solution text** (Hoey 1983 , 2001).

Topic-33: Current theory and research in genre analysis-1

Chouliaraki and Fairclough (1999) assume that linguistic choices are related to all the major social functions of language transmitting the meta-functions. Their analysis is essential not only for the study of **textual construction** but also for understanding how a text may disseminate **ideological beliefs** and the social effect this may have. In this stage of genre analysis, we are particularly concerned with the relationship that can be established between **textual features** and their role in helping a text to adjust to **social expectations**. In a broader understanding of Halliday’s (2004) textual **meta-function** – usually concerned with explaining how **texture** is achieved

through cohesion and coherence – we are, at this point, interested in the **textual choices** which help in making a text fulfil social expectations such as beliefs, traditions or other cultural aspects etc. Thus, instead of adopting a purely descriptive view of the textual choices characterizing different types, or **genres**, of political texts, we shall also try to explain the social role that those choices have in different social contexts.

Genres can be viewed as “global linguistic patterns which have historically developed in a linguistic community for fulfilling specific communicative tasks in specific situations” Laura Filardo Llamas and Michael S. Boyd (Chilton and Schäffner 2002: 19). According to Fairclough (1989: 29–37), each social domain has an associated “**order of discourse**” or a structured collection of discursive practices connected with particular social domains (Fairclough 1989: 29–37). For example, socio-political genre would have different domain as compared to academic genres. CDA is particularly interested in the **role** that certain **genres** play “in the exercise of power and influence in the very definition of politics and political institutions” (Chilton and Schäffner 2002: 21). Shifting nature of political genres make it necessary for them to be constantly adapted and redefined. An example of the “fluid and shifting character” of (mediatised) political genres (Cap and Okulska 2013: 6) can be found in blogs. In her study of Polish and UK official political blogs, Kopytowska (2013: 381) sees such mediatized blogs as an emerging genre in PD that breaks down “the ontological divisions between the public and the private.” Her analysis considers the importance of **mediatization** and **proximation** which combine to reduce the distance between (political) blogs and their audiences through the creation of a virtual community.

Topic-34: Current Theory and Research in Genre Analysis II

Genre analysis can be made for speeches and other political genres, such as debates (Boyd 2013) and interviews, which are broadcasted on YouTube as short fragments or in their entirety (Reisigl 2008: 259), often leading to the reshaping of these genres (Boyd 2011, 2014a, 2014b; Cap and Okulska 2013: 8–9).

Political genres are **now** more widely accessible and, importantly, the reception factors have been altered significantly by new communication paradigms such as text and video commenting, sharing, or liking, which encourage different forms of user-mediated interaction (Boyd 2011, 2014). Cap and Okulska (2013: 9) question the actual role of “**authorship**” (production) as a defining feature of political genres due to the “**intensity of migration**” into new

media. For example, most of the talk-shows are preplanned; and experts/speakers are invited accordingly to show dominance of one party on another. All of this implies a “re-imagining” (Fairclough 2010) of the political genres, as their distinguishing features are arguably now less clear-cut, and their textual construction shall be analyzed not only by looking at a unitary text, but also by considering the “**genres and combinations**” new media genres and texts draw upon (Fairclough, 2006: 33). According to van Dijk’s (1997) dichotomy between political participants/possible **political effect**. Intertextual relations between different types of genres are of key importance for understanding how political **genres** can evolve, and how this can affect other socio-political **practices**. Filardo-Llamas (2012) presents an analysis of a political campaign in the streets of Northern Irish cities. Llamas claims that the relation can be established between the multiple political genres that can be part of one single political campaign, i.e. murals and commemorative plaques of Irish political party. For example, **polysemy** can be found in the use of the word “**deal**” by the Democratic Unionist Party in 1998 to imply both the political meaning of agreement and the metaphorical meaning of economic negotiation as a means to delegitimize the peace agreement that had been signed in Northern Ireland (Filardo-Llamas 2014). Even if the double political and metaphoric meaning was the most common use, the word was visually recontextualized, and a new type of “**deal**” was referred to in one of the political manifestos produced by the same party five years later, during the election campaign for Northern Ireland’s Assembly.

Topic-35: Application of Genre Analysis

Hammond and Macken Horarick (1999) argue that **genre-based teaching** can help students gain access to texts and discourses which will, hopefully, help them participate more successfully in second language **spoken and written interactions**. Luke (1996), argues that teaching ‘**genres of power**’ such as academic essays or dissertations leads to **uncritical reproduction** of text and does not necessarily provide the kind of access we hope it might provide for our learners. Others, such as Christie (1993) and Martin (1993) argue that not teaching genres of power is socially irresponsible in that it is the already disadvantaged students who are especially disadvantaged by programmes that do not address these issues. One thing should be kept in mind in **genre-based teaching** that it may limit student-expression if it is done through using model texts and a focus on audience expectations. Teachers equally need to think about how they can help students bring their own individual voices into their use of particular genres (Swales 2000).

Students should avoid over-generalization, they should not apply one genre technique to another (Hyon 2001, Johns 2008). Devitt (2004) points out, the ways in which students draw on prior genre knowledge to create a further instance of the particular genre are not at all straightforward and may take place in a number of different ways. Kay and Dudley-Evans (1998) consider that teachers need to highlight the kind of variation that occurs in particular genres. They also focused on the importance of contextualizing genres in classrooms by discussing purpose, audience and underlying beliefs and values before moving on to focus on the language features of a text. They said learners should be exposed to a wide range of sample texts and that these should be both authentic and suitable for the learners. They also felt a genre-based approach should be used in combination with other approaches, such as **process and communicative approaches** to language teaching and learning. According to Scott and Groom (1999), the **teaching of generic forms** does not discount the use of models, but rather sees models as part of a wider repertoire of resources that students can draw on and adapt, as appropriate, to support their meaning making (Paltridge, 2012). Tardy (2006) examines the research into genre-based teaching, in both first and second language contexts. As she points out, genre theory has gone beyond looking at genres as just 'text types' to considerations of genre as 'a more social construct which shapes and is shaped by human activity'. Dessen-Hammouda's (2008) study of a geology student's experiences in learning to write showed how he benefitted from a focus on genre, especially in relation to the acquisition of disciplinary identity. She argues, along with others, that the teaching of genres should include more than just linguistic and rhetorical features of genres. It should also focus on the disciplinary community's ways of perceiving, interpreting and behaving; that is, the 'ways of being, seeing and acting' (238) that are particular to the student's disciplinary community. Kongpetch found that the genre-based approach she employed had a significant impact on the quality of her students' writing (Paltridge, 2012). Johns (2008) points out, however, that in all these students need to develop both **genre awareness** and **rhetorical flexibility**. That is, they need to learn the expectations of particular genres in particular settings, as well as remain flexible when applying this knowledge to the requirements of the particular text they are producing (Paltridge, 2012). Genres, then, provide a frame (Swales, 2004) which enables people to take part in, and interpret, particular communicative events. Explicit knowledge of genre can make the learners able enough to communicate successfully in particular situations. It can also provide learners with access to socially powerful forms of language.

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Lecture-09

Multimodality and CDA

Topic-36: **What is Multi-modality?**

Multi-modality has become more common in CDA as scholars began to introduce **visual, sound and material design** alongside their analysis of texts. But doing Multi-modal CDA (MCDA) is a field essentially still in its infancy. A few book titles have started to appear where multi-modality has been specifically formulated alongside CDA, such as Mayr and Machin (2012); Machin and Mayr (2012); Djonov and Zhao (2014); Abousnnouga and Machin (2013); and a journal special edition Machin (2013). There is a need to develop and establish clear, robust concepts that can be used as part of CDA with its emphasis on digging out the discourses buried in texts to reveal the kinds of **power relations** and ideologies that they represent. In fact, **multi-modality**, since emerging from linguistics in the late 1990s, still remains, in itself, rather fragmented. There is a need to work on concepts that how they are used for specific purposes. There is also an increasing sense that clearer links need to be made with existing fields of research into the visual, the sonic and the material, into whose longer traditions of investigation **multimodality** is now entering. In this context it is important for CDA to identify which of an array of competing concepts are most suitable for its own needs. MCDA needs to depart from a fundamentally social question: What semiotic resources are drawn upon in communication, or discourse, in order to carry out ideological work? And the social here as a point of departure is highly important in order to distinguish **this approach** from other kinds of **multi-modal** work which have a very different starting point.

Following are the important steps to important to indicate the necessity for a social approach. First, it allows us to show what might be the most **productive ways** to proceed for CDA. Secondly, we may show exactly how this approach would work by carrying out an analysis of a set of university performance management documents which contain writing, photography, layout, tables, bulleted lists and numbers. Social practices such as cultural differences, etc. can't be understood without focusing on semiotic resources. We shall discuss that how different kinds of **semiotic resources** are deployed to do very different things – because each has very specific affordances, which can be deployed for the purposes of **re-contextualization**. The different kinds

of **semiotic resources** should not be conceived as independent modes as they always operate, and indeed evolved, in relationship to others.

Topic-37: Origins/background of Multimodality

Two books of Kress and van Leeuwen's '*Reading Images*' (1996) and O'Toole's '*The Language of Displayed Art*' (1994) has been appreciated as founding the field of multi-modality. The hugely different nature of these books characterizes much of the variation that is now found in writing presented as multimodality. The books were greatly influenced by the work of Michael Halliday (1978), where emphasis was on the social use of language. This differed from other theories of language. There was an emphasis on how language should be understood as being shaped through its cultural, historical and social uses. There was also a shift away from the idea of a more rigid, or formal, grammar, to one of a system of semantic choices, or alternatives. Halliday's Systemic Functional Linguistics (SFL) sees language as an overall system of choices made up of layers of smaller subsystems which build into the whole. An important endeavor in SFL is to model these systems and subsystems called 'systemic networks'. These networks are seen as being based on three **meta-functions** underlying semiosis. **Semiotic modes (connected systems of resources)** are simultaneously used to: say something about the world - **the ideational meta-function**; to signal our relationships - **the interpersonal meta-function**; and marshal these into a structured whole - **the textual meta-function** (Halliday and Hasan 1985). '*Reading Images*' and '*The Language of Displayed Art*' extended the social interpretation of language and its meanings to different aspects of visual communication. **Reading Images** draws on Hallidayan concepts but is also highly interdisciplinary, using semiotics and visual psychology. '*Reading Images*' focuses on the uses of **semiotic resources** to make situated meaning and the ideologies and values that these carry, with an attempt to place these in the institutional contexts and interests that they serve. Signs are never fixed but have affordances which are always realized in communicative interactions, which will carry traces of the power relations underlying them. '*The Language of Displayed Art*' is oriented to show how concepts and forms of analysis used in linguistic-based systemic functional linguistics can be used to describe and model the systems that underlie works of art and sculpture. Such works produce systems networks of the found patterns, or show how different modes fulfil Halliday's communicative **meta-functions**. For example,

O'Halloran (2008) shows how mathematics can be understood as **multi-semiotic** discourse involving language, visual images and symbolism.

Topic-38: Approaches to MDA

A viewpoint about multimodality is the **cognitive approach**, inspired mainly by the work of Forceville (1996). This approach studies how **visual metaphors**, in film, advertising and cartoons, for example, as with metaphors in language (Charteris Black, 2014), can be used to shape perceptions of particular phenomenon. This approach has been taken on by some critical discourse analysts to show some visual metaphorical patterns in the representation of immigrants (Catalano and Waugh, 2013). A further strand of multimodality is **Interactional Analysis**, developed mainly through the innovative work of Scollon and Norris (2004, 2011). This **strand of multimodality is a form of ethnographic work that draws attention to the way that meaning making is done through a highly subtle interplay of different semiotic resources** such as language, gesture and posture, and in relation to context, **proximity** and **rich cues** in the environment. Looking at the subtleties of the specific multi modal ensembles can reveal how different meanings are communicated at different levels, for example **identity cues** in social interactions (Norris 2011). In sum, **multimodality** shifts away from an emphasis on language as a site of **meaning making**, taking the traditions of the fine grained analysis of linguistics to look at the use, and nature of, other semiotic resources. This has the potential to produce predictive models of the building blocks of different forms of communication, of graphic design, gesture, space, art, etc., and in turn create a more powerful tool for analysis of the actual use of resources in context. Kress (2010: 104) argues that: “A **multimodal social-semiotic approach** assumes that all modes of representation are, in principle, of equal significance in representation and communication, as all modes have potential for meaning, though differently with different modes”.

Topic-39: Criticism of Multimodality

Forceville (2010) thinks that there is a lack of consistency in how terms are used, where authors tend to come up with their own unique meanings. Reynolds (2012) expressed concern that multi-modal analysis may suffer from producing lots of **descriptive concepts** but **fall short** on showing how these actually produce clear insights. **It has been argued that multimodality must**

avoid the ‘**tunnel vision**’ (Forceville 2010; Machin 2013) of seeing all research matters through one single theory of language. Need to engage with the fields which can offer guiding principles into which the finer kinds of analysis **multi-modality** can be organized, such as in film studies and media studies. Also, to engage with practitioners and take an ethnographic approach might be fruitful in order to explore the actual use of **semiotic resources** such as typography or layout. Systematic Functional Linguistics – SFL helps to explore these semiotic recourses. SFL also tends to use texts and other semiotic materials in order to establish ‘**the grammar**’, the underlying systemic resources, departing from the assumption that the semiotic behavior of sign-makers is guided by more or less the same conventions, regardless of the contexts and semiotic modes involved. Bateman (2013) argues it is always possible to simply take a set of categories such as the **meta-functions** to look at an object, but this may be the very kind of imposing of concepts for which multi-modality has been criticized. Not all kinds of semiotic resources are suitable to be described by the three **meta-functions**. Therefore, it can carry out ideological work through **positioning** and the creating of **relationships** between elements. There will, of course, be a kind of ideational and interpersonal consequences or qualities involved in layout but it does not realize them in itself and it is not the case that layout relies on the three **meta-functions** carrying out equal semiotic work. We also believe that it is fruitful to view different kinds of **semiotic resources** as existing in a way that is always tightly interwoven. **Semiotic resources** are co articulated in communication and evolved in this multi- or inter-semiotic way. Breaking this into isolated modes risks compromising this idea. That modes exist in the independent way was recognized by Halliday (1975). When observing his son learning language, he saw that the evolving **textual meta-function** was in many ways realized outside grammar, or was paralinguistic. So we become coherent in speech with prosody, body language, posture, etc. – which all carry important interpersonal functions. Finally, and crucially for multi-modal CDA, an approach to modes which focuses on the systemic part of communication can serve to downplay the situated semiosis unfolding in time and space. This risks a sociological or contextual blindness, since utterances are viewed as resulting from grammatical systems and become detached from the interests of real people.

Topic-40: The Re-contextualization of Social Practice

Re contextualization of social practice is useful as it draws particular attention to the sequences of activity, or ‘scripts’ that can be understood as the ‘**doing**’ of discourses (van Leeuwen and Wodak 1999). Here discourse can be thought of as representing knowledge of what goes on in a particular **social practice**, ideas about why it is the way it is, who is involved and what kinds of values they hold. Discourses tell us why these scripts are reasonable ways of acting in the world. Van Leeuwen and Wodak (1999) argue that **social practices** can be **re contextualized** in language through **substitutions, additions, deletions** and **re-ordering** of the sequences that comprise events. Social practices may have: participants, ideas, values and attitudes; activities; social relations; objects and instruments; time and setting and causality. For example, in a university document, in order to see that what kind of social practices are re-contextualized, we may look upon: which causality and identities have been deleted or substituted or added. It helps to focus a critical socially driven **multi-modal** analysis where we reveal the ideologies buried in the use of different kinds of semiotic resources. For universities, new trend is to use promotional tools in order to develop customer relations (Teo 2007; Zhang O’Halloran 2013). Such processes allow the universities to become better value for money, to provide a better service to the public and also provide clear accountability (Hall 2012). But critics of this management strategy suggest rather that in such cases public institutions cease to be operated along priorities based on the experiences of professional employees – on their knowledge of research processes and pedagogy – but on criteria that comes from a more generic management language (Power, 1997). Employees become unprofessional and their energies are increasingly diverted away from former **core activities** to showing that **business targets** are being met (Power 1997). For example, universities focus much on brochures and vision statements are kept bold to attract more audience. Some highlight the vision that is to be fulfilled, and describe staff that may be popular for the audience or mention the strategies and activities which are important to engage more audience. The analysis shows that such documents contain semiotic modes in different ways, relying on their specific affordances and interrelationships in order to communicate.

Lecture-10

Multi-Modality and CDA (II)

Topic-41: Example of MMDA

No matter language is a tool of communication but people also uses different modes such as **images, gesture, gaze and posture** (Machin 2007, Jewitt 2009). Each of these modes has particular affordances within the particular context; that is, what it is possible to represent and express through a particular mode (Kress, 1993). This meaning potential of the particular mode is 'shaped by how mode has been used, what it has been repeatedly used to mean and do, and the social conventions that informs its use in context' (Jewitt, 2009). **Images** have been given special attention in much of the work in multimodal discourse analysis. The images may include photographs, diagrams, maps or cartoons which may have their own grammar. For example, the social relationship between an image and its viewer is strongly influenced by whether the subject in the image establishes eye contact with the viewer or does not. Eye contact could perhaps suggest a demand, whereas no eye contact might suggest an offer. The point of view, or perspective, of the image is also relevant, for example, a horizontal image suggests involvement as the viewer is on the same level as the subject of the image (Paltridge, 2012). A high angle shot might suggest superiority and a low angle shot may suggest respect. Other meanings are conveyed through the distance of a shot (close vs. medium vs. long), the lighting, color and focus of the shot and the extent to which the image in the shot aims to reflect reality, or not (Feez, Iedema and White 2010).



Time Magazine usually publishes **close-look images** with high-level facial expressions having strong eye contact, i.e. the image of Michelle Obama who had straight look establishing eye contact with the reader. The shot was horizontal suggesting the reader could be on the same level as the subject of the image which connects the readers (Kress & van Leeuwen, 2006). The image is centrally framed within the borders of the magazine cover and supported by the text 'The Meaning of Michelle', showing how these two elements i.e. the **words** and the **image** clearly belong together, providing a strong intermodal complementarity to the elements on the page. In MMDA examples, we cannot ignore the modes such as writing, images, color and facial expressions and the relation between them. We consider which mode is **foregrounded**, which mode carries **major informational** weight and which mode has **what function** in the text (Kress 2010). In the case of the cover of Time, the image of Michelle Obama is foregrounded and carries the major informational load in the text. The text is written within the early days of Barack Obama's time as president of the United States and in its image, and text, describes a Michelle Obama who is both casual and in charge. The authors of the text clearly have an interest in presenting this image to their readers and give agency to their subject by presenting, with sympathy, her personal views on life in the White House, as the First Lady, and the way she conducts herself in this role (Paltridge, 2012).

Topic-42: A Social Semiotic Theory of Multimodality

Language contains a number of **semiotic resources** such as gestures, images, and music that people use to communicate meanings (Halliday, 1978). Therefore, language is considered within the sociocultural context in which it occurs and **Multimodal discourse analysis** helps to describe **semiotic resources** that we draw on for communication. **While looking at social-semiotic meanings, we also need to focus on interpersonal relations between participants and textual meanings that how the message is organized.** In **multimodal texts** these meanings are realized visually in how the image conveys aspects of the real world, i.e. The ideational, or representational meaning of the image. We focus on how the images engage with the viewer the interpersonal, or modal meaning of the image, and how the elements in an image are arranged to involve its intention or effect (de Silva Joyce and Gaudin 2007). **Here are some examples of multimodal discourse analysis that are influenced by this view include Kress and van Leeuwen's (2006).**

(i) Reading images: The grammar of visual design - Kress (2010)

(ii) Multimodality: A social semiotic approach to contemporary communication - van Leeuwen's (2005).

(iii) Introducing social semiotics - O'Halloran's (2004)

(iv) Multimodal discourse analysis and Painter - Martin and Unsworth's (2012) Reading visual narratives.

(v) Machin and van Leeuwen (2007) discuss multimodality in relation to global media discourse.

(vi) Bednarek and Martin (2010) discuss systemic functional perspectives on multimodality and Bednarek and Caple (2012) examine multimodality and news discourse.

(vii) Jewitt (2009) describes four theoretical assumptions that underlie multimodal discourse analysis.

The **first** is that language is part of an *ensemble* of modes, each of which has equal potential to contribute to meaning, for example: Images, gaze and posture, thus, do not just support meaning, they contribute to meaning. The **second** is that each mode of communication realizes different meanings and that looking at language as the principal (or sole) medium of communication only reveals a partial view of what is being communicated. The **third** assumption is that people select from and configure these various modes in order to make meaning and that the interaction between these modes and the distribution of meanings between them are part of the production of meaning. The **fourth** assumption is that meanings made by the use of multimodal resources are social. These meanings, further, are shaped by the norms, rules and social conventions for the genre that are current at the particular time, in the particular context. Kress (2010) in *Multimodality: A social semiotic approach to contemporary communication* provides a social-semiotic theory of multimodality. Among other things, a social-semiotic theory of multimodality asks: *What meaning* is being made in a text? *How* is meaning being made in the text? What *resources* have been drawn on to make the meaning in the text? In what *social environment* is the meaning being made? Whose *interest* and *agency* is at work in the making of the meaning? It does this by considering modes such as writing, images, color and facial expressions and the relation between them. It considers which mode is fore-grounded, which mode carries major informational weight (Kress, 2010).

Topic-43: Genre and Multimodality Framework

According to Bateman (2008), text is just one strand in a complex presentational form that seamlessly incorporates visual aspects **‘around’**, and sometimes even **instead of**, the text itself. In a genre and **multimodality framework** he mentions: the content structure, the genre structure, the rhetorical structure, the linguistic structure, the layout structure and the navigation structure of the text. Each of these operates within the constraints of the physical nature of the text being produced **e.g.** Paper or screen size, constraints arising from production technologies **e.g.** page limits, colour, size of graphics, deadlines and consumption constraints **e.g.** time, place, and manner of obtaining and consuming the document, the ease with which the text can be read. Earlier discussion was just about text, size, etc. but this one deals with the use of colour, even though colour is used simply, i.e. largely red and black, yet effectively, in the text. The colour is intense and intensely saturated. It is also maximally dark and pure, giving high value to the colour (Paltridge, 2012). The red background of the page suggests warmth, energy and salience. In terms of **content structure**, the text is equally simple. There is just the single image of Michelle Obama and a brief title that gives a clue to the content of the article inside the journal. In terms of **genre structure**, the image and the text appear simultaneously making up just a single ‘move’, a lead-in to the main text. **The rhetorical structure is equally simple, made up of ‘background’ (the image) and ‘elaboration’ (the title of the article) which adds extra information to the image.** Similarly, the image might be called the Theme, or **‘point of departure’** of the message, while the text is the Rheme, that is, what will be said ‘about’ the Theme. The **linguistic structures** of the key verbal components of the text are a single noun (Time), and a noun group (The Meaning of Michelle). The **layout structure** follows expected conventions for covers of Time magazine with the image being given central place and the title of the magazine, the article and other articles in the issue placed above and below the main image, in what Kress and van Leeuwen (2007) term a vertical triptych arrangement of the page. The **navigation structure** for the written text requires the reader to consume the image and its caption before reading the full text of the article by opening the pages of the magazine.

Topic-44: Multimodality and Newspaper Genre

According to Caple (2009), some newspapers do not contain **full stories**, they just contain a heading, photograph or a short caption in order to capture the interest, i.e. image-nuclear news stories. Knox discusses NEWSBITE which comprises a headline and an image with a **hyperlink** to a **full story** they are often single-sentence news stories. The function of newsbites is to highlight the most important stories of the day and to indicate the level of importance of the stories as illustrated by the size of the text, its positioning on the page, the font and size of the headline and the colour and size of an image, if there is one on the page. Knox (2007) considers Online newspapers more **fluid and dynamic** than print-based newspapers because they are often updated continuously. He identifies three key elements to the genre of newsbites: The **Headline**, the **Lead** (typically the first sentence of the fuller text) and the **Link** to the complete text. The stance of the newspaper and its relationship with its readers are reflected in the presentation of the home page and the **newsbites** that are placed on it. These pages, thus, have a strong interpersonal value and create an environment in which the texts are read. Caple found most of the headings that accompanied the images were an **idiomatic expression** that fitted with the subject matter of the photograph. For example, in an image-nuclear **news-story** about drought in China there was an image of dry, cracked earth which had central prominence in the photo with a row of people in the background carrying work tools. The heading that accompanied the image '**Dry hard with a vengeance**' was a play on the 1995 American movie title **Die Hard: With a Vengeance**, the third in the Die Hard film series. Caple argues that newspapers use such expressions to express cultural and social **solidarity** with the readers. The three components of this text are the **Heading** which appears above the text, the **Image** which has central place and the **Caption** which appears in a smaller font beside the image. The **Image** helps the reader to understand intertextual reference to knowledge, i.e. socio-cultural or contextual link between the **Heading** and the image. According to Caple (2010), images not only play role in newspaper but they also have significance in TV, songs, literary works and supporting events. **Home-pages** of newspapers are considered very important because the owners or editors decide what to put on front-pages, i.e. an important politician etc. While rest of the pages have their own domains for news, i.e. separate pages for city, sports or entertainment news. Online newspapers also have such categories, i.e. International, Country, Asia News, Entertainment etc. and, such categories can be seen after scrolling the website horizontally or vertically.

Topic-45: Multimodality in Film and Television Genres

Iedema (2001) provides a framework for the analysis of films and television by drawing on work in film theory and genre theory. The levels of analysis he proposes are frame, shot, scene, sequence (from film theory), generic stage and work as a whole (from genre theory). These levels can be summarized as: A **frame** is a salient or representative still of a shot. In a **shot** the camera movement is unedited (uncut); if the camera's position changes this may be due to panning, tracking, zooming and so on, but not editing cuts. In a **scene** the camera remains in one time-space, but is at the same time made up of more than one shot (otherwise it would be a shot) In a **sequence** the camera moves with specific character(s) or subtopic across time spaces. In films, each genre has a specific set of stages, for example: **Narratives** tend to have an orientation, a complication, a resolution and maybe a coda; **Factual or expository genres** may have an introduction, a set of arguments or facts and conclusion or an introduction and a series of facts or procedures. Narratives are fictional, dramatic genres and 'factual' are expository, thematic, issue-oriented genres.

In films, genres are predictable relations between social-cultural, industrial-economic and symbolic-mythic orders. Williams (2009) mentions an example of Obama, in a speech, he is alone on the stage, looking at his audience and with a flag of the United States in the background. The composition of the frame and the shot come together to provide both the orientation and the point of departure for the rest of the speech. In terms of distance, the shot is close, just his head and shoulders, suggesting close social distance between him and his viewers. The flag in the background of the shot reminds us of the context of the speech. In terms of perspective, the shot is horizontal with Obama at the center of the frame (Paltridge, 2012). Obama's manner, gaze and use of language aim to connect with his audience. In terms of sequence, the camera has moved from a shot of a waving US flag held by someone in the crowd and continues with Obama in center frame. The camera then moves to a shot of Obama at the podium with a row of US flags in the background. The generic stage is the Introduction to the speech and the work as a whole is very early classified as an **expository genre**, a victory speech, due to its **rheterical character**, the place and occasion on which it occurs, as well as its intertextual relationship with previous victory speeches delivered by former presidents-elect. Baldry and Thibault (2005) relate the analysis of television genres to the notions of context of culture and context of situation highlighting the importance of relating the analysis to specific social and historical events, the time of day of the broadcast, and the specific viewers the program is aimed at.

Topic-46: Carrying out MMDA

The steps involved in **carrying out multimodal** discourse analysis are similar to those of any discourse analysis project. A difference does lie, however, in how the data is analyzed and what aspects of the data are seen to contribute to the meaning of the text. In **first step**, spoken or written data is collected, then it is summarized with accompanying notes that will help to give a contextual understanding of the data. Additional commentary can be added, where first thoughts, or ideas, about the data can be recorded that can be pursued in greater depth in the analysis. If the data is **in video format**, analysts should also focus on both the sound and vision of the data. If the data is **print** or **web-based** text we need to see each mode that has been used (e.g. words, font, format, images) contributes to the overall meaning of the text and the ways in which they each are doing this. These features can then be considered in relation to the contextual notes that were made when the data was first collected. From this data, the extract(s) need to be chosen that will be the focus of the analysis. In most cases, there will be far too much data for analysis so there is a need to be selective in terms of what will be examined. The focus could be on some aspect of the data that seems to stand out. We can then go back to the larger data set to see to what extent this is typical of the particular data set you have collected. Then, the data can be further analyzed from a discourse analytic perspective (Bezner and Jewitt 2010). Baldry and Thibault (2005) discuss **printed texts** such as advertisements and cartoons, web pages, as well as film and television genres. They have used the idea of cluster to refer to groupings of items on print or web pages and cluster analysis to capture how these parts of texts are connected to other items, rather than separate from each other. They claim that the relationship between clusters, rather than the individual parts of the individual clusters, that make meaning in a specific context. In terms of film and television genres, Baldry and Thibault's discussion includes shots, phases and transitions between phases in these genres. They also discuss the relation between the **soundtrack** and **images** on the screen and the ways in which features of the soundtrack, such as music, provide contextual ground to the image. In all of this, their aim is to show the relationships between context of situation, genre and context of culture in multimodal genres (Paltridge, 2012).

Lecture-11

Corpus Based Approaches and CDA

Topic-47: Introduction

The word "corpus", derived from the Latin word meaning "body", may be used to refer to any text in written or spoken form. In modern Linguistics, this term is used to refer to large collections of texts which represent a sample of a particular variety or use of language(s) that are presented in machine readable form. Corpus Linguistics is a relatively new field- a result of the wider availability and use of personal computers in the last quarter of the twentieth century. Corpora thus comprise numerous text files which require the conversion of traditionally published works from paper into electronic form, while spoken language must be recorded and then transcribed. Corpus linguistics is the study of language based on large collections of "real life" language use stored in corpora (or corpuses) -computerized databases created for linguistic research. Corpus linguistics is viewed by some linguists as a research tool or methodology, and by others as a discipline or theory in its own right. Kuebler and Zinsmeister conclude that it can be both depending on how corpus linguistics is applied (Corpus Linguistics and Linguistically Annotated Corpora, 2015). While many corpora simply contain representations of the original text, it is also common to 'mark-up' a corpus by inserting 'tags' (or codes) into it. For example, header tags can be used to provide information about each file such as author, date of publication, genre, etc.

Corpus linguistics is a methodology for linguistic analysis that focuses on describing linguistic variation in large collections of authentic texts (the corpus), using automatic and interactive computer programs to aid in analysis. Thus, the goal of corpus linguistics is to identify patterns of variation that are generalizable across many texts in a specific discourse context. Corpus-based studies focus on linguistic forms in specific linguistic and/or situational contexts. Primarily seen as belonging to the language in use. Corpus analysis can provide into how a particular language variety is constructed and realized linguistically.

Topic-48: Kinds of Corpora

There are many different kinds of corpora. They can contain written or spoken (transcribed) language, modern or old texts, texts from one language or several languages.

1. According to purpose: General-purpose corpora: designed as a resource for a general representation of the language and to serve as the basis for a wide range of varied linguistic studies. E.g. Brown, LOB (Lancaster-Oslo/Bergen corpus), BNC (British National Corpus). Domain-specific (or 'sub-language') corpora: represent a specific variety (whether regional, temporal, language domain, etc.) and/or are intended for specific purposes (language teaching, dictionary making, translation studies, etc.): Guangzhou Petroleum English Corpus, JDEST Computer Corpus of Text in English for Science and Technology

2. According to text selection procedure:

Sample corpus: it consists of sections of texts ("samples") of approximately same length representing a variety of text categories ("balancing", representativeness). E.g., Brown, LOB (Lancaster-Oslo/Bergen corpus), SEU (Survey of English Usage corpus), etc. Brown and LOB: 15 text categories, 500 samples, 2000 words per sample.

Full-text corpora: consists of full texts. E.g.: English Poetry Full-Text Database.

Open / Close character: Closed/static corpus: once the corpus is completed no more texts are added. E.g. all the corpora above.

Open/dynamic corpus: 'monitor' corpus or 'text-bank'. New materials are continually added, older materials are discarded. Balance between different types is maintained, e.g. Bank of English (University of Birmingham).

'Collections': Not exactly corpora (lack of explicit design/purpose) but large sets of texts. E.g. Oxford Text Archive, LDC (Linguistic Data Consortium), Project Gutenberg.

3. According to Medium:

Written corpora: only written texts. E.g. Brown, LOB. Spoken corpora: e.g. LLC (London-Lund Corpus): spoken section of SEU: ½ million words of British English speech with detailed transcription by means of a prosodic notation showing features such as stress and intonation.

Mixed corpora: both written and spoken material. E.g.: Birmingham Bank of English, BNC (British National Corpus), ICE (International Corpus of English).

4. According to number of languages/dialects represented:

Monolingual corpora: texts in one language (or language variety) only.

More than one language/dialect: (original and one or more translated versions of the same texts: Canadian Hansard, English-Norwegian Parallel Corpus. Useful for lexicography, language teaching and translation studies: ICE (International Corpus of English): texts compiled in 15 countries where English is the first or an official second language.

Topic-49: Design and construction of corpus

A corpus is made for the study of language. Therefore, a well-designed corpus will reflect this purpose. The contents of the corpus should be chosen to support the purpose, and therefore in some sense represent the language from which they are chosen. A corpus occasionally shows features which we suspect not to be characteristic of the language under study, or fail to show features which are expected. We should not feel under pressure to use the patterns of the language to influence the design of the corpus, but we should review the design criteria to check that they are adequate. **There are three considerations that we must attend to in deciding a sampling policy:**

- 1. The orientation to the language or variety to be sampled.**
- 2. The criteria on which we will choose samples.**
- 3. The nature and dimensions of the samples.**

The first major step in corpus building is the determination of the criteria on which the texts that form the corpus will be selected. Common criteria include:

- 1. the mode of the text; whether the language originates in speech or writing, or perhaps nowadays in electronic mode;**

2. the type of text; for example, if written, whether a book, a journal, a notice or a letter;

3. the domain of the text; for example, whether academic or popular;

4. the language or languages or language varieties of the corpus;

5. the location of the texts; for example (the English of) UK or Australia;

6. the date of the texts

Criteria for determining the structure of a corpus should be small in number, clearly separate from each other, and efficient as a group in delineating a corpus that is representative of the language or variety under examination. Any information about a text other than the alphanumeric string of its words and punctuation should be stored separately from the plain text and merged when required in applications.

Topic-50: The strengths of corpus-based research

The analysis is based on a corpus, a large collection of electronic texts that is sampled to represent a target register, or language variety. While many terms have been used to distinguish varieties of language, including *register*, *genre*, *style* and *text type*. We use the term *register* to refer to varieties of language use that are distinguishable based on situational characteristics such as purpose, mode, setting, author/speaker, reader and so on (see Biber and Conrad, 2009). For example, we can distinguish conversation as a register by its real time spoken mode, shared time and place between participants. Corpus-based language studies rely on a variety of computer tools to assist in the analysis of the corpus. Because a computer should come to the same conclusion about a particular linguistic feature each time it is encountered, the reliability of computer-aided analysis is typically quite high. In addition, and perhaps even more importantly, the efficiency afforded by computers means that a much greater amount of language data can be analyzed. As a result of the extensive amount of language data available, calculating quantitative patterns of use is meaningful and in fact, fairly easy and reliable to carry out. The use of quantitative data in corpus-based discourse analysis is important for two main reasons. First, quantitative methods allow for the empirical establishment of linguistic patterns across the texts in the corpus. Second, because of the ability to describe a register as a whole (in quantitative terms and based on a large number of representative texts), it becomes quite feasible to make comparisons across registers.

The core contribution of corpus linguistic approaches to discourse analysis is the ability to make reliable, generalizable discoveries about the patterns of linguistic variation across registers. Because the corpus is central to the generalizability of corpus research findings, the design of the corpus is a crucial consideration for the researcher. **More specifically, two characteristics of the corpus are of particular concern for corpus linguists: Size and representativeness** (see Biber, 1993)

Topic-51: Challenges of Constructing a Corpus

The question of corpus size is a difficult one. There is not a specific number of words that answers this question. (Carter and McCarthy 2001). For explorations that are designed to capture all the senses of a particular word or set of words, as in building a dictionary, then the corpus needs to be large, very large – tens or hundreds of millions of words. However, for most questions that are pursued by corpus researchers, the question of size is resolved by two factors: representativeness (have I collected enough texts (words) to accurately represent the type of language under investigation?) and practicality (time constraints). How do I collect texts? before collecting texts, it is important to have permission to collect them. When collecting texts from people or institutions, it is essential to get consent from the parties involved. The rules that apply vary by country, institution and setting, so be sure to check before beginning collection. There are texts that are considered public domain. These texts are available for research and permission is not needed. Public domain texts are also available for free, Copyrighted material, which in addition to requiring permission prior to use may also have fees associated with it. When creating a corpus there are certain procedures that are followed (spoken or written language). Some issues that are best addressed prior to corpus construction include: What constitutes a text? How will the files be named? What information will be included in each file? How will the texts be stored (file format)? How much mark-up do I need? The term ‘mark-up’ refers to adding information to a corpus file. Not all corpora contain mark-up; however, certain types of mark-up can facilitate corpus analysis. Mark-up can be divided into two types: document mark-up and annotations. Document mark-up refers to markings much like HTML codes that are used to indicate document features such as paragraphs, fonts, sentences, including sentence numbers, speaker identification, and marking the

end of the text. Given the enormous changes in the world of technology over the last five years, it is difficult to imagine the scope of changes that might take place in the area of corpus construction and tools. One of the changes that we will see in the near future is greater availability of spoken corpora. This could be a result of two factors. First, researchers may be more able and willing to share the spoken corpora that they have assembled. Second, hopefully, creating spoken corpora will benefit from technological advances in speech recognition, thus making the task of transcribing spoken language to text files a much more efficient process and more automated task. The development and use of video and multi-modal corpora is another area that will probably change dramatically in the next decade. Some research is already being done in this area (Carter and Adolphs 2008; Knight and Adolphs 2008; Dahlmann and Adolphs, 2009)

Topic-52: The Development of a Useful Synergy

The 1990s saw the first suggestions that corpus techniques could be used in order to carry out CDA. For example, Caldas Coulthard (1993, 1995) examined the representation of men and women speaking in a news-as-narrative discourse, using basic frequency information to note that terms referring to males were much more frequent than those referring to women. Analysis of frequencies, collocates and concordances grew in popularity during the late 1990s and 2000s as ways of identifying discourses or representations of particular identity groups or concepts, particularly in political contexts. The former work includes Krishnamurthy's (1996) work on the contexts of identity words like *tribal*, *ethnic* and *racial*. Another technique used by corpus analysts of discourse is the elicitation of *keywords*, a concept which has gradually changed over time. For example, Stubbs (1996) followed Williams (1976) in viewing a keyword as a word that has significance in a particular discourse and tells us about the values of a society (such as *employment* or *family*). Keywords have been used as a springboard for related forms of analysis, including 'concordance'. Keywords (Marchi 2010, Taylor 2010), where a sub-corpus is created using concordance lines derived from particular search words and then keywords are elicited from that. Corpus (as a way of focusing on the immediate lexical context around a word of interest). Baker (2005) also describes how annotated corpora can be used to find key semantic or grammatical categories – groups of words which may not be key alone but their combined frequencies are more common in one corpus. In the 2000s, a group led by Alan Partington conceptualized **Corpus-Assisted Discourse Studies (CADS)** which built and analyzed corpora to analyze how discourse

participants achieve (often political) goals via language or how participants differ in their use of language. A main aim of CADS is to discover non-obvious meaning and identify questions and puzzles that would otherwise have not been considered (Partington, Duguid and Taylor 2013: 1–24)

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Lecture-12

Positive Discourse Analysis

Topic-53: Introduction: origin and orientations

PDA focuses on “positive” orientations to discourse analysis. Both “deconstructive and constructive activity” are required to produce a healthy and socially useful CDA (Martin, 2012: 282). It aims to invest intellectual resources in setting an agenda of social change and future aims through discourse analysis. Still a very new area of CDA - According to Bartlett (2012), there has been no entry of the term Positive Discourse Analysis (PDA) in Wikipedia; and on Google, there were few publications on PDA. Some authors consider all Critical Discourse Analysis **positive** because critique is a necessary step in promoting change for the better.

Origin and Orientation:

The term Positive Discourse Analysis first appears in Martin (2004). He supports a more Ideologically oriented discourse analysis which not only focuses deconstructing language in the service of power but, in addition, also on analysis of and participation in sites of successful social change. Overall, PDA encourages a reorientation in critical thinking which considers how people make the world a better place and design interventions based on such considerations. Martin’s work was influenced by Kress (2000). Kress used a term “design” which focused on using past agendas and products as resources in setting future aims and in assembling means to implement them. **Design** needs to be based on studies of “how people get together and make room for themselves in the word in ways that redistribute power without necessarily struggling against it”. Martin draws his inspiration from Kress’ (1996) critique of the CDA focus only on uncovering “inequitable, dehumanising and deleterious states of affairs”. Also followed his call for a move from “deconstructive activity to productive activity” (Kress, 2000: 160–161). Deconstruction is helpful but not enough on its own. Martin considers that the lack of positive discourse analysis (PDA) cripples our understanding of how change happens, for the better, across a range of sites. Similarly, Luke (2002: 98) argues for CDA to move beyond a focus on ideology critique and to document “other” forms of text and discourse – subaltern, diasporic, emancipatory, local, minority. This may mark the productive use of power in the face of economic and cultural globalization. He further argues that CDA “must be able to demonstrate what ‘should be’ as well as what is

problematic with text and discourse in the world”. This may involve identifying and documenting “preferred modes of emancipatory discourse” and “analytically deconstructing -positive and productive configurations of power/knowledge in discourse”. Bartlett (2019: 135) has raised some questions about PDA: to what extent does PDA consider text-external features of the context, beyond simply providing an ideological backdrop? Under what conditions are these positive discourses favorably and productively received by the minority groups they are supposed to be re-enfranchising? Is getting an oppressed minority on board a sufficient objective without also considering the extent to which alternative discourses have the potential to alter the status quo?

There is a need to consider the conditions of possibility under which alternative discourses may be produced, taken up and legitimated. It requires the overlay of a **social theoretic discourse** for explaining and explicating the social contexts, concomitants, contingencies and consequences of any given text or discourse. PDA might contribute to wider CDA, not as a subdiscipline but as an orientation or as a methodology.

Topic-54: PDA and Ecolinguistics

Fill and Mühlhäusler in their book **The Ecolinguistics Reader** have linked **ecology and language** in three distinct ways: Ecology as metaphor, language and environment, and critical ecolinguistics. Stibbe (2014) defines this relationship as questioning the stories that underpin our current unsustainable civilization by:

1. exposing stories that are clearly not working, that are leading to **ecological destruction and social injustice**;

2. finding new stories that work better in the conditions of the world that we face”.

Stibbe (2014) looks at the detailed analysis of the linguistic mechanisms by which world-views are constructed, reproduced, spread and resisted. While the “**eco-side**” gives an ecological framework to look at world-views in preserving the conditions that support life. Stibbe (2014) further argued that the term critical does not imply “being negative”. According to him, proposing alternatives is also a part of being critical. E.g. ecolinguistics challenges “the universal code that sees unlimited economic growth as both a possible and a desirable goal for human societies”. “**Positive**” aspects aim to seek out and promote discourses which could potentially help protect and preserve the conditions that support life. This can be done through raising awareness about the

role of language in ecological destruction or protection. Informing policy or educational development providing ideas that can be drawn on in redesigning existing texts or producing new texts in the future.

According to Stibbe (2014), both ecolinguistics and PDA are distinct from CDA in terms of their practical application: the raising of critical awareness of hidden ideologies in the case of CDA and, for PDA or ecolinguistics, the promotion of positive texts. And, more specifically, it is an analysis of the “specific clustering of linguistic features that convey the worldview” of positive texts. E.g., texts which “express scientific knowledge but without devaluing other species” or which resist “imposed metaphors from the West” and “re-assert the traditional metaphors of local cultures” (Stibbe, 2014). It can further be claimed that the focus on **positive discourses** advocated by Martin (2012) has pushed ahead while little progress has been made with respect to converting such analysis into **Design** or consideration of the specific social conditions affecting the uptake of both **dominant** and **alternative discourses**. Macgilchrist, however, has considered five counter discursive strategies - to question dominant messages and their potential for uptake:

(i) **logical inversion**: a straight counter to the stated facts. “countering a dominant frame with logical arguments does not work”. It can simply be ignored or disbelieved.

(ii) **parody**: a mocking questioning of presupposed knowledge which Macgilchrist considers a form of logical inversion with a limited scope for uptake.

(iii) **complexification**: a two-sided account in which aspects of a story that do not fit the dominant frame are not filtered. E.g. very few casual readers get beyond the headlines and first paragraphs if they are not written by expert writers or journalists.

(iv) **partial reframing**: in which a mainstream frame may be temporarily countered through the use of alternative frames, i.e. we may not focus on the mainstream view that frames the article.

(v) **radical reframing**: it includes the dialogue not only with other frames as partial framing, but also includes an inversion of the mainstream view of the issue” (Macgilchrist 2007). He considers it a more general phenomenon, applicable to other news media topics or indeed to other forms of social interaction”.

Topic-55: Assimilation, Accommodation and Cultural Capital

Bartlett's (2012) research suggested that the legitimization of marginalised voices was a function of their assimilation to and accommodation of the prevalent patterns of the dominant group, but went beyond this to suggest that certain voices were only legitimately available to specific participants. According to Bartlett (2012), the affirmative character of discourse can take many forms, The purview of CDA could include the documentation of: **(all of the given)**

1. minority discourses, diasporic voices, texts, and statements that are 'written out' and over by dominant institutions.
2. emergent discourses of hybrid identity generated by learners [or other marginal groups] counter to dominant pedagogic [and other] discourses;
3. idiosyncratic local uptakes, where human subjects take centrally broadcast or dominant texts and discourses and reinterpret, recycle and revoice them in particular ways that serve their local political interests; and this may involve "translating" outside discourses into locally amenable terms
4. those micropolitical strategies of interruption, resistance, and counter-discourse undertaken by speakers in face-to-face institutional and interpersonal settings.

Bartlett's work has provided a sociocultural explanation for the change in relating the ways of speaking of the various speakers to their sociocultural and institutional identities and in relating the discourse practices in general to the specific sociopolitical context, providing the local genealogies of discourse practices. According to him, working with the individuals and groups involved is a further desirable element of positive discourse analysis. Bartlett has criticized development organisations for not fully involving local communities in their analyses and decision-making.

Topic-56: PDA in Education and Social Activism

In education, the term PDA can be used to cover various progressive strands such as Reading to Learn programme, Critical Applied Linguistics; and moves towards a more inclusive Curriculum Design (Gouveia 2007). Rogers and Mosley Wetzel (2013), present an individual case study of literary education aimed at marginalised groups in the Missouri State School System. The authors draw on the tools of narrative analysis, critical discourse analysis and multi-modal analysis

to interpret the relationships between **texts and social practices**. For them, teacher is a **change agent**; and both the teachers and resources for the educators play a role to bring change in society.

In this way, their research can be said to be “**positive**” in a double sense as it deals with the empowerment of both the **student** and **teacher** involved as the “workshop provides Leslie a vehicle to position herself not only as an educator, but an educator of other teachers and as an **agent of social change**”. According to the authors, these discourse processes help the people to have a better and deep look about their future actions. Dissemination of such discourses and practices is a long-term process that involves multiple opportunities to call on narratives and rhetorical strategies, depending on the audience, context, and purpose”. Scollon’s (2010) framework of **Public Consultative Discourse Analysis (PCDA)** has clear links with PDA in that “PCDA is never just discourse analysis but is a form of discourse analysis which seeks to bring discourse analysis itself into the democratic and participatory negotiation of public policy” (Scollon 2010). PCDA is a reiterative process of critically analyzing discourses, reporting on findings, including feedback into the deliberations, and conducting further analyses. Rogers outlines in her case study drew on close analyses of “the textual devices that contribute to power and consent” (2012) in a variety of data sources, such as minutes of meetings, media reports, transcripts of public hearings, and policy documents and to use the analyses to influence public policies.

Rogers (2012: 18) argues, such counter-narratives not only question dominant knowledge, they also serve to “build community among those at the margins of society”; and “teach that new stories, over time, can create new realities”. In this way, the aims of PCDA – consciousness raising and increased activism through the collective processes, culminating in the writing of the report – are combined with the critical gaze of CDA in “framing, historicizing, and disrupting textual silences” as a first stage in creating a counter-narrative. Rogers’s use of PCDA, therefore, adds a further variable to what may be considered the “P” of PDA in the incorporation of the subject community themselves in every aspect of the analysis of discourses and their circulation and the formulation and promulgation of counter-discourse. To discuss **social activism** Humphreys (2013) uses an **SFL-based approach** “to account for intertextual resources deployed by an activist across multiple texts in a complex network of social affiliations” and to show “how particular patterns of

manifest intertextuality enable the young activist to build solidarity with his fellow young affiliates and to mobilize social action”.

From PDA perspective, Humphreys (2013) says that discursive resources which rally audiences “around communal ideas and dispositions” can be interpreted as strategies for removing boundaries between adult and adolescent discursive politics”. Schröter’s (2015) celebration of the dystopic through her examination of **punk culture** – P(unk)DA? – as a site that “nourishes a critical distance from and critical attitude towards hegemonic discourse”. Schröter analyses lyrics from post Wall German punk. How they “undermine an exculpatory argumentation in hegemonic public and political discourse that failed to tackle racist ideology and racist violence” (2015). “More attention should be paid to a broader variety of voices in discourses especially by looking at the continuum between hegemony and resistance”. Schröter (2015) sees punk lyrics as representing “a counter discourse which is marked by disturbance, disagreement and distance” and; far from wishing to be accepted by the hegemonic forces of the day. “Punks usually have no problem with implying themselves as ugly, deprived, undesirable”. Such a stance also creates solidarity within the punk movement; helps to sustain it as an alternative movement; Therefore, suggesting the conditions of possibility for uptake of such counter-discourses that is missing from more celebratory PDA.

Lecture-13

Pragmatics and CDA (I)

Topic-57: Pragmatics and CDA history

Pragmatics is the study of meaning in relation to the context in which a person is speaking or writing. This includes social, situational and textual context. It also includes background knowledge context; that is, what people know about each other and about the world. Pragmatics assumes that when people communicate with each other they normally follow some kind of cooperative principle; that is, they have a shared understanding of how they should cooperate in their communications. The relationship between linguistic form and communicative function is of central interest in the area of pragmatics, as Cameron (2001) argues, is highly relevant to the field of discourse analysis. We need to know the communicative function of an utterance, that is, what it is 'doing' in the particular setting in order to assign a discourse label to the utterance in the place of the overall discourse. For example, if someone says 'The bus was late' they may be complaining about the bus service. They may be explaining why they are late as a follow up to an apology. Meaning is not something that is inherent in the words alone, nor is it produced by the speaker alone or the hearer alone (Thomas, 1995). Making meaning is a dynamic process, involving the negotiation of meaning between speaker and hearer, the context of utterance (physical, social and linguistic), and the meaning potential of an utterance. During the early days of CDA, Fairclough (2001: 7-8) criticized Pragmatics, in particular the Anglo-Saxon tradition, primarily associated with the work of Austin (1962, 1975) on Speech Acts and Grice (1975) on implicature.

Fairclough's criticism revolves around two significant points. First, he argues that Pragmatics does not take into account the conditions and power imbalances of the social world, and instead postulates an ideal, smooth communicative situation. Second, he finds problematic the theorization of the participants of communicative events, which "understates the extent to which people are caught up in, constrained by, and indeed derive their individual identities from social conventions" (2001: 7-8). The limited scope has led Fairclough to suggest that Pragmatics "often appears to describe discourse as it might be in a better world, rather than discourse as it is" (Fairclough 2001: 8). One might thus imagine that Pragmatics postulates a sort of Habermasian 'ideal situation' (Habermas 1970, 1979, 1981). The difference in scope between Pragmatics and

CDS is reflected in conferences and publications focusing primarily on Pragmatics or CDS. The former often happily include applications of pragmatics for critical analyses of discourse dealing with issues of ideology and power in media, political, medical, institutional and intercultural contexts (e.g., Cap 2014; Hansson 2015). **Topic-58: Hymes and Pragmatics**

Hymes, a key theorist in Pragmatics, proposed the concept of 'communicative competence'. This is based on the connection between speech and social relations can be seen as performance/ competence/speaking model of language. Hymes formulated it as a response to Noam Chomsky's division of competence vs performance. Linguistic competence is the system of linguistic knowledge possessed by native speakers of a language. It is in contrast to the concept of Linguistic performance, the way the language system is used in communication. Linguistic competence is innate. Linguistic competence underlies linguistic performance. A speaker still has his linguistic competence even he does not speak. Communicative competence involves knowing not only the language code but also what to say to whom, and how to say it appropriately in any given situation. It deals with the social and cultural knowledge speakers are presumed to have to enable them to use and interpret linguistic forms. Communicative competence extends to both knowledge and expectation of who may or may not speak in certain settings, when to speak and when to remain silent, whom one may speak to, etc. what appropriate nonverbal behaviors are in various contexts; what the routines for turn-taking are in conversation, how to ask for and give information, how to request, how to offer or decline assistance or cooperation, in short, everything involving the use of language in particular social settings.

S setting/scene temporal and physical circumstances, subjective definition of an occasion

P participant speaker/sender/addressor/ receiver/audience/addressee

E ends purposes and goals, outcomes

A act sequence message form and content

K key tone, manner

I instrumentalities channel (verbal, nonverbal)

N norms specific interactional and interpretational properties normally attached to speaking

Topic-59: Language Context and Discourse

An understanding of how language functions in context is central to an understanding of the relationship between what is said and what is understood in spoken and written discourse. The relationship between language and context is fundamental to pragmatics. Malinowski's (1923, 1935) notions of context of situation and context of culture to discuss this relationship, arguing that in order to understand the meaning of What a person says or writes. That is, if you don't know what the people involved in a text are doing and don't understand their culture 'then you can't make sense of their text' (Martin, 2001 : 151). The linguist John Firth (1957), proposed that context can be divided into three components: the relevant features of participants, persons, personalities. Malinowski and Firth, also proposed a three-part model of context. For him, context consists of:

Field: The social action that is taking place.

Tenor: The participants, their roles and relationships.

Mode: The symbolic or rhetorical channel and the role which language plays in the situation.

Context may include:

A. Physical context, the social context and the mental worlds and roles of the people involved in the interaction. Social, political and cultural understanding that are relevant to the particular communication. Background knowledge context: cultural and interpersonal knowledge

B. Linguistic context (Co-text). The co-text of a word is the set of other words used in the same phrase or sentence.

Meaning is produced in interaction; jointly accomplished – involves social, psychological and cognitive factors. 'a form of collaborative social action'. Co-text limits the range of possible interpretations. A conversation between two people in a restaurant may mean different things to the actual people speaking, something different to a 'side participant' in the conversation (such as someone sitting next to one of the speakers), something different to a 'bystander' and again something different to someone who may be eavesdropping the conversation (Verschueren 1999). Thomas (1995: 22) explains: Meaning is not inherent in the words alone, nor is it produced by

the speaker alone or the hearer alone. Making meaning is a dynamic process, involving the negotiation of meaning between speaker and hearer, the context of utterance (physical, social and linguistic), and the meaning potential of an utterance. Contexts are the controlling structures of social phenomena in general and of language use and discourse in particular. They represent what is relevant in the environment of social action and discourse so that language users as social actors are able to adapt their text and talk to each environment.

Topic-60: Speech Acts and Discourse Analysis

Language is used to 'do things' other than just refer to the truth and falseness of particular Statements (Austin, 1962; Searle, 1969). Denial of the logical positivist view: Similar to physical acts, people also perform acts by using language – e.g. to give orders, to make requests, to give warnings or to give advice, etc. To do things that go beyond the literal meanings of what we say. What one says and what intends by saying it. E.g. 'It's hot here' may be a 'request' instead of mere information about weather. **Three kinds of Acts (Austin)**

Locutionary Act Literal meanings of the actual words

Illocutionary Act Speaker's intention in uttering the words

Perlocutionary Act The effect of an utterance on the thoughts or actions of the other person.e.g. 'Bus Driver: This bus won't move until you boys move in out of the doorway' (taken from Paltridge, 2006)

The identification of the illocutionary force may depend on the stage in the discourse as well as the social context. e.g. 'OK' (an expression of agreement, continuer, pre-closing, etc). An utterance may have more than a single illocutionary force.

Direct Speech Acts

The intended meanings may be quite different from the literal meaning.e.g. 'bring a plate' 'Can I take your order now please?' 'can I have a cheese burger?' 'I'll have two pieces of chicken and a coke'

Indirect Speech Acts

May be difficult for second language learners e.g. 'This room is a real mess' 'would you mind helping me move this table'

Examples of Direct Speech

When a specific sentence structure performs its direct function. 'Did you eat the pizza?'
Interrogative – Question 'Eat the pizza' (please)! Imperative – Command (Request) 'You ate the pizza.'
Declarative – Statement

Examples of Indirect Speech

'Can you pass the salt?'

'You left the door open'

The main reason we use indirect speech acts seems to be that actions such as requests, presented in an indirect way, are generally considered to be more gentle and polite in some societies than direct speech acts. e.g. 'Could you open that door for me'. 'Open that door for me!'

Topic 61: Felicity conditions and discourse

An important notion in speech act theory is the concept of *felicity conditions*. For a speech act to 'work', Austin argued that there are a number of conditions that must be met. The first of these is that there must be a generally accepted procedure for successfully carrying out the speech act, such as inviting someone to a wedding through the use of a formal written wedding invitation, rather than (for many people) an informal email message. Also the circumstances must be appropriate for the use of the speech act. That is, someone must be getting married. The person who uses the speech act must be the appropriate person to use it in the particular context. Such as the bride or groom's family, or in some cases the bride or groom, inviting the person to the wedding. Austin argued that this procedure must be carried out correctly and completely. And the person performing the speech act must (in most circumstances) have the required thoughts, feelings and intentions for the speech act to be 'felicitous'. The communication must be carried out by the right person, in the right place, at the right time and, normally, with a certain intention or it will not 'work'. If the first two of these conditions are not satisfied, the act will not be achieved and will 'misfire'. If the third of these conditions does not hold, then the procedure will be 'abused'. Searle

took Austin's work further by arguing that the felicity conditions of an utterance are 'constitutive rules'. That is, they are not just something that can 'go right' (or wrong) or be 'abused' – which was Austin's view – but something which makes up and defines the act itself. That is, they are rules that need to be followed for the utterance to work.

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Lecture-14

Pragmatics and CDA (II)

Topic-62: Presupposition and CDA: a socio-cognitive approach

Presupposition is primarily a figure-ground distinction. The presupposed knowledge surfaces in the text as 'setting the background', with the foregrounded knowledge being presented as new or significant. Presuppositions thus may be more difficult (but not impossible) to refute, because this would require a shift of focus – bringing the backgrounded material to the foreground. (Marmaridou, 2000).

From a cognitive perspective: Presupposition constitutes the ground in figure-ground distinctions in discourse, which is necessary for understanding the discourse and not possible to question or negate unless said ground is explicitly foregrounded/drawn attention to (Polyzou 2015). Intuitively, a presupposition constitutes a necessary assumption required to understand the meaning of a sentence.

John returned to Cambridge

>> John has been to Cambridge before.

If I were Superman, I would be bulletproof

>> I am not Superman

Presupposed material is ubiquitous in discourse and can be analysed on a number of (interconnected) levels including: Lexical level (presupposed frames): These are of interest to critical analysis as lexical choices (Fairclough 1992); referential and predication strategies (Reisigl and Wodak 2001); They figure as an important feature in the representation of social actors (van Leeuwen 1996), including metaphorical representations (see e.g., Fairclough 1992: 194–198). E.g. Word/phrase level (semantic frames - certain 'presupposition triggers' such as 'stop' – related to referential and predication strategies)

Clause/sentence level: prototypically in English these involve single clauses:

I stopped smoking → I used to smoke,

I regret arguing with her → I argued with her;

Co-ordinating conjunctions such as ‘but’ and ‘or’ also carry presupposed given assumptions (what Grice has termed conventional implications).

Discourse level: Background knowledge of broader discursive formations, which would inevitably include socio-cognitive ideological assumptions (Polyzou 2015). Presupposed discourses and generic expectations. Position of information in the text, how the text fits with the overall knowledge in the related epistemic/discourse. Allusions, presumptions, background knowledge.

Pragmatic competence level: which is in fact a meta-level and includes presupposed assumptions about the way discourse operates in general, so it is a presupposition *about* presuppositions, such as ‘Felicity’s condition’. People have reasons for their behaviour, including communicative behavior. It is at this level that people’s ‘theories of mind’ operate, i.e., assumptions about how to ‘decode’ and understand other people’s feelings and thoughts.

The pragmatic meta-level is about procedural knowledge (how to ‘make sense’ of discourse and the world) – see van Dijk (2003: 90) on types of knowledge. Presupposition analysis is crucial for uncovering naturalised ideologies underlying discourse, and examining manipulative functions of discourse, especially, strategies making it socially or cognitively harder to challenge ideological assumptions.

Topic-63: Sentence Level Presupposition

Numerous ideological assumptions are presented as ‘given’ through classical sentence level presuppositions

1. Did you know that *23% of men prefer watching television than reading books?*
2. the latest research [survey] reveals that *23% of men prefer television and other sedentary sports to reading.*
3. stop *nagging about his work.*

Example 1 constitutes informative presupposition, presenting information presumed to be new to the reader and then repeated in Example 2. The ‘presupposition triggers’, i.e., the phrases introducing the presupposed assumptions, frame the proposition that “23% of men prefer TV to reading” as definitely true and incontestable. In that sense, the information is only backgrounded in relation to the reader’s ignorance of it up until that point. Namely, this is definitely the case, but it is only now that we know it. This emphasis on ignorance has a further pragmatic function – this new information is not only incontestable and hitherto unknown, but also surprising, and potentially unsettling. This is because on the speech act level this serves to justify the necessity of the advice as a felicity condition. Giving someone advice to solve a non-existent problem is not felicitous, so here the lack of interest in reading on behalf of 23% of the male participants in a survey is set up as a problem that needs to be addressed. ‘Stop nagging’ clearly presupposes (takes for granted) that the reader nags, i.e., is engaging in a type of talk carrying negative characteristics.

On the discursive level, this draws on very widespread and commonplace assumptions about women’s talk – that women do talk a lot also that they complain; they do so perhaps in a high-pitched voice; they do so persistently and inconsiderately, etc.

Examples of Clause/sentence level Presupposition

Temporal clauses: *before X, since X, after X, whenever X, as X, during X, ...*

During the War of 1812, the British burned down the White House

>> There was a War of 1812

Cleft sentences: *it was X that Y (cleft)*

What John ate was chicken burger

>> John ate something

Contrastives: *contrastive intonation, too, back, in return; comparative as-clause.*

John hit Mary back.

>> Mary hit John.

Counterfactuals: conditional or modal expressions stating facts contrary to how the world is.

If John had entered the raffle, he would have won.

>> John didn't enter the raffle.

Topic-64: Existential Presuppositions and Framing

We need to distinguish between existential presuppositions and lexical choices. Existential presupposition merely presuppose the existence of something. Lexical choices, which frame the said 'something', the referent, in particular ways. The two interact in conjunction to evoke ideological beliefs.

Example: ' . . . stop *nagging* about his work '.

In the text, it is taken for granted, through existential presupposition, that there is a male colleague/partner in the concerned female's life. The masculine pronoun also indicate that the partner is male. The lexis chosen to refer to this colleague/partner reflects more specifically the framing of both the person and the relationship between them.

Lexical choice 'nagging' also reveals some social perceptions about women.

Existential Presupposition

If anything is asserted, there is always an obvious presupposition that the simple or compound proper names used have a reference. If one, therefore, asserts (in the following sentence), there is a presupposition that the name 'Kepler' designates something. Kepler died in misery.

>> The name Kepler designates something.

Therefore, proper names in a sentence carry the presupposition that they designate something in the world - that it exists. When a speaker says "Tom's car is new", we can presuppose that Tom exists and that he has a car. 'May be some eccentric millionaire is playing games with people' she said. It has been presupposed that a millionaire exists.

Topic-65: Discourse Level

Text and discourse level deals with the position of information in the text, how the text fits with the overall knowledge in the related epistemic/discourse community. Allusions, presumptions, background knowledge. We need to look both at what is not presupposed but rather asserted/presented as new, as well as widen the scope to look at the associations and implications of the narrow-scope presuppositions involved. Look at this example again: ‘. stop nagging about his work’.

The domestic aspect of the Passive Femininity presupposed underlies the specifics of the speech acts related to advice, and specifically the content. The use of unmitigated imperatives is rather a matter of style, constructing the advice-giver as an authority and the content as beneficial to the recipient (therefore not an imposition). However, when someone is advised to do something unusual, some justification is needed for this course of action. For example, it takes some explanation as to why it has to be cinnamon or garlic that the reader has to give her partner. What does not require any explanation is that she will be taking care of the couple’s nutrition anyway – making cookies, preparing the weekly menu, making her partner cups of tea and even giving him multivitamins. Any similar advice addressed to men, if it is given at all, would include suggestions that a man might want to make a meal to impress his partner – here cooking is a given, the question rather is what to cook. Identifying and studying presupposition through ‘presupposition triggers’ may be theoretically problematic and not very useful for discourse analysis. We need to involve the factor of ‘knowledge’, but then we move away from the traditional definition.

Traditional ‘presupposition triggers’ are most useful as related to matters of emphasis (Foregrounding vs. Backgrounding), together with other parameters (framing, context). If we define ‘presupposition’ as ‘shared knowledge’, we need to be explicit about what kind of beliefs we are talking about, and how they surface in discourse (as ‘shared’? as ‘given’? shared by whom?). We need to be explicit about the triggers based on which we analyze a text as ‘presupposing’ certain knowledge. Analyst’s knowledge comes in inevitably. This is necessary in order to decide what is shared knowledge and what is not, as well as whether this knowledge is ideological based on our knowledge of the social context.

Presupposition also contributes to non-obvious expression of ideological beliefs in discourse and has formed part of wider critical analyses, as in Magalhães (1995), Fairclough (2001: 127 ff.), Christie (2000: 24–25; 88 ff.), Bekalu (2006), Talbot (2010: Ch. 7), Kosetzi and Polyzou (2009), Polyzou (2013), KhosraviNik (2015) and Flowerdew (1997, 2012).

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Lecture-15

Pragmatics and CDA (III)

Topic-66: Cooperative Principle & Discourse Analysis

The linguist Paul Grice (1975) described that:

- 1- In most conversational exchanges, participants are co-operating with each other.
- 2- Conversational partners are expected to obey four maxims.

It makes your conversational contribution such as is required, at the stage at which it occurs, by the accepted purpose or direction of the talk exchange in which you are engaged. The cooperative principle states that we interpret the language on the assumption that a speaker is obeying the four maxims (known as Grice's Maxims) of:

Maxims:

QUALITY (Being True)

QUANTITY (Being Brief)

RELATION (Being Relevant)

MANNER (Being Clear)

Quantity

Make your contribution as informative as is required for the current purposes of the exchange. Do not make the contribution more informative than is required.

A: Sit down at the newly painted table.

This referring expression contains information that may be useful to identify the referent. However: Under the assumption that A is being cooperative, we might expect that the property of “being newly painted” is being chosen for a purpose.

Quality

Do not say what you believe to be false.

Do not say that for which you lack adequate evidence.

A: Where's the nearest supermarket?

B: I think there's one round the corner, but I'm not from these parts.

We do feel a general "obligation" to tell the truth, and if we're uncertain, we indicate that this is the case.

Relevance

Make your contributions relevant.

Leech (1983: 94) provides the following definition of the notion of relevance: "An utterance U is relevant to a speech situation if U can be interpreted as contributing to the conversational goal(s) of speaker or hearer"

A: Where is my box of chocolates?

B: It's in your room.

can be compared to

A: Where is my box of chocolates?

B: The children were in your room this morning.

Manner

Avoid obscurity.

Avoid ambiguity.

Be brief.

Be orderly.

The **maxim of manner** thus relates "not [...] to what is said but, rather, to HOW what is said to be said [...]" (Grice 1975: 46). Leech (1983: 100) distinguishes two kinds of clarity: "One

kind consists in making unambiguous use of syntax and phonology of the language. Another type consists in framing a clear message, i.e. a message which is intelligible in the sense of conveying the intended goal.

Topic-67: Cross-cultural Pragmatics and CDA

CCP arguably the subfield of pragmatics that draws more attention in the modern world where on a daily basis participants interact while not sharing the same native or primary language for communication. Comprehension and production of pragmatic meaning become complicated. Moreover, cultural differences also include sociocultural dimensions, a term that refers as well as to ethnic, group, educational and other features of people that may influence their language use and nonverbal behaviors. The diversity not only regards language dialects and accents, but also language use due to divergent socioeconomic, educational and historical influences in the communities. Ways of Thinking about Culture.

As Piller (2012) points out, the idea of “a culture” is an ideological construction; that is, there are other ways that people might be organized and categorized besides culture. One can see this construction in the ways that “cultures” vary in time, space, and scale. There are cultures of cities, states, countries, and even continents or subcontinents. The idea of what culture depend on the ideologies and politics of the moment. Piller’s (2012: 8) three-way division:

- (1) Comparative analyses of two or more cultures.
- (2) Analyses of interactions between speakers from different cultural backgrounds.
- (3) The discursive creation of culture.

In (1) comparative analyses, cultures are assumed to exist and then some interactional aspect of them is compared, a possibility running through all of the ways of approaching cross-cultural interaction discussed below. Interactional analyses in (2) are arguably the most dominant studies, and are especially identified with the work of John Gumperz, Deborah Tannen, and their students (Gumperz 1982; Tannen 1984). Culture is assumed to be a construct, many studies look at how language is used to create and typify “a culture,” both in talk and writing (or in other media, such as videos posted on YouTube). This kind of typification can take place through assumptions

about culture (e.g., advice to travelers about whether people in a particular country tend to be punctual)

Why CCP is important?

In a world that is getting smaller when people from different societies and cultures interact with greater and greater frequency, a “harmonious” cross-cultural interaction is essential. Power relation in this global interaction.

CCP in Education

Mismatch of interactional norms between home and school in order to empower children to succeed. Possibility of language to have sexual/biased connotation in different cultures. Differences in terms of group power. In the sociolinguistic approach to pragmatics, “culture” is not Culture with a capital C, that is literature, music and art of one speech community or grouping of people. Rather it is culture as a reflection of the values and beliefs about the world, held by the members of a community which form, in effect the substratum of their everyday life.

Topic-68: Conversational Implicature and CDA

Conversational implicature refers to the inference a hearer makes about a speaker's intended meaning. The conversational principle and its maxims. For example, if I say ‘There's nothing on at the movies’ I do not mean ‘nothing at all’, but rather ‘nothing that I'm interested in seeing’. As Thomas (1995 : 58) explains, an implicature ‘is generated intentionally by the speaker and may (or may not) be understood by the hearer’. An inference, on the other hand, is produced by a hearer on the basis of certain evidence and may not, in fact, be the same as what a speaker intends. To calculate an implicature, Grice (1975) argues, hearers draw on the conventional meanings of words, the cooperative principle and its maxims, the linguistic and non-linguistic context of the utterance, items of background knowledge and the fact that all of these are available to both participants and they both assume this to be the case. Two kinds of conversational implicature: *conventional* and *particularized conversational implicatures*. With conventional implicatures, no particular context is required in order to derive the implicature. The use of ‘anyway’ conventionally implicates a return to the original topic of a conversation (Lo Castro 2003). The use of ‘but’ and ‘on the other hand’ to express contrast, ‘even’ to suggest something is

contrary to expectation and 'yet' to suggest something will be different at a later time, are further examples of conventional implicatures. Particularized conversational implicatures, however, are derived from a particular context, rather than from the use of the words alone. These result from the maxim of relation. That is, the speaker assumes the hearer will search for the relevance of what is said and derive an intended meaning. For example:

A: You're out of coffee.

B: Don't worry there's a shop on the corner.

A derives from B's answer that they will be able to buy coffee from the shop on the corner. Most implicatures, in fact, are particularized conversational implicatures.

Topic-69: Politeness Face and CDA

Politeness generally refers to the ideas like being tactful, modest and nice to other people. In pragmatics, politeness can be defined as 'showing awareness and consideration of another person's face'. (Yule, 2010)

Face – Public self image – emotional and social sense of self that everyone expects everyone else to recognise. **Three Maxims of Politeness (Lakoff, 1973)**

1. 'Don't impose' – 'I'm sorry to bother you but....'

2. 'Give options' – 'Do you think you could possibly come pick me up'.

3. 'Make your hearer feel good' – 'You're better at this than me'; 'Oh that'd be great'.

Politeness principles may vary from situation to situation and context to context.e.g. In an emergency, there is less need to be polite and make your hearer feel good than in a normal situation. Politeness may not always be a matter of words but how you say them.

Involvement

Involvement refers to the need people have to be involved with others and to show this involvement – a person's right to be considered a normal, contributing and supporting member of a society/group. (e.g. by agreeing with them, showing our interest in someone, etc.)

Independence

Independence refers to a person's right not to be dominated by others – to be able to act with some sense of individuality or autonomy. (e.g. by giving people options, by apologizing for interruptions, etc.). Both are important to maintain social relationships. Choosing a politeness strategy may depend on:

- A. how socially close or distant we are from the hearer
- B. how much or how little power the hearer has over us
- C. how significant what I want is to me, and to the person I am talking to.

Politeness and gender

- Women are more polite than men?
- Power and Politeness

Face-threatening Act

If you say something that represents a threat to another person's self-image, that is called a face-threatening act. e.g. 'Give me that paper'

Face-saving Act

'Could you pass me that paper'

'I'm dying for a drink'

'Yes it's really hot. Isn't it?'

Lecture-16

Systemic Functional Linguistics and CDA

Topic-70: SFL (aims and applications)

SFL is considered a branch of linguistics with specific theoretical principles. SFL linguists have devised a complex set of analytic tools and techniques that have proved useful in **applied studies** such as education, communication studies and forensic linguistics as well as CDA. SFL then is not a type of critical discourse studies but rather an **independent discipline** with features that CDA practitioners have applied productively to understanding how discourse works. The theoretical approach in SFL focuses on the **meaning-making** resources of language within specific social and cultural contexts. Since its earliest manifestations, SFL has been concerned with **social action** or 'what people do with language'. SFL uses the term **lexicogrammar** to encapsulate the idea that **vocabulary (lexis)** is inextricably linked to **grammatical choices** that are available in a language. These choices are contained in system networks which offer paradigmatic options that carry significant meaning. These systems characterize the large body of options that are available to speakers to create **meaning in context**. Unlike purely formal models of linguistics, Systemic Functional Linguistics (SFL) claims that the semantic networks, which are **social and cultural** constructs, carry meaning potential, which is 'unfolded' within texts (spoken or written) in specific **contexts of situation**. Meaning fulfils three overarching components of the semantic system known as **meta-functions**: *a) ideational b) Interpersonal c) textual* which are reflected in instances of language use. It is also a tenet of SFL that "the study of discourse cannot be separated from the study of the grammar that lies behind it" (Halliday and Matthiessen 2004). This latter point is clearly a controversial position in critical discourse studies, particularly as the word 'discourse' is open to many different interpretations (Blommaert 2005, Bloor 2007).

SFL approaches help to explore the socio cultural settings in which the discourse events take place, and can also provide a focus for investigation. Young and Harrison (2004) highlighted the role of language as a social construct. This involves the constant effects of language events on social action and the influence of social action, in turn, on the development of language. Fairclough has drawn attention to the type of language analysis that could be considered appropriate for

critical discourse work and listed ten questions concerning lexis, grammar and textual features, the grammar questions being closely drawn from **systemic functional grammar** (Fairclough, 1989). One **strength** of SFL when compared with more formal schools of linguistics is that it has always been concerned with more than clause and sentence grammar and has worked with instances of ‘authentic’ language (recorded or written) rather than with examples constructed by the linguist.

A major early contribution to discourse analysis in general, including CDA, was *Cohesion in English*, an early work of Halliday and Hasan (1976). Work on textual cohesion has been incorporated into further studies of spoken and written discourse, incorporating the information structure and the thematic structure of texts. Further work on meaning above the clause, usually referred to as discourse semantics has enriched the understanding of textual features. Martin and White’s (2005) account of appraisal and evaluation has particular relevance to CDA. Appraisal is a word which covers the analysis of the way in which speakers or writers express their attitude or (positively or negatively) evaluate proposals in the discourse. The evaluation can relate to either interpersonal or ideational meaning.

Topic-71: Objections to SFL in Critical Discourse Analysis

CDS has become so diffuse that most practitioners can appreciate only a minority of the publications and there is little sign of the ‘clarity and consensus’. The complexity of SFL lexicogrammar, with its many levels of analysis, can appear unnecessarily obscure for the common CDA goals of addressing power, gross inequalities and injustice. Meriel Bloor and Thomas Bloor have discussed Van Dijk’s (2008) objection to SFL “as a framework for the study of discourse”, in part because it involves “too much linguistic (lexico-syntactic) sentence grammar” and “too much esoteric vocabulary”. Van Dijk (2008) sees some limitations in the **SFL theory of context**. Van Dijk is concerned about what he sees as the ‘**anti-mentalist**’ position of SFL seemingly based on his reading of Halliday 1978. Van Dijk takes a **socio-cognitive** approach to CDA and he is interested in individual ‘mental models’.

In fact, some aspects of cognitive linguistics are in no way alien to SFL. Halliday (2001) references Rosch’s (1978) **prototype theory** in acknowledging the importance of ‘core signification’ in grammatical classification systems. Some writers have specifically condemned the influence of SFL and linguistics in general. Blommaert (2005) refers to what he calls the

problem of “*linguistic bias in CD*” (his italics), one reason being, he explains, that “linguists have no monopoly over theories of language”. His main objection to linguistics seems to be that “the emphasis on linguistic analysis implies an emphasis on available discourse.” He explains this rather puzzling claim by arguing that “the bias restricts the space of analysis to textually organized and explicitly linguistically encoded discourse” rather than to the social conditions “where it comes from and goes to”. CDA may need a closer account of aspects of **social context** in combination with any linguistic analysis. Galasiński (2011) employs both **SFL** and **ethnography** in his investigations (doctor patient interaction) arguing that “a firm anchoring in a **lexico-grammatical** analysis of the data gives ethnography an empirical basis”. Barkho (2011) also supports “**moving beyond the analysis of textual output**” by incorporating ethnographic techniques into his research.

Blommaert’s thinks that the **socio-historical** and ethnographic bases of **power** and **identity** and on “the global structures of inequality” are seen as necessarily mediated through language (Blommaert 2005). Nevertheless, we would argue, power and inequality can be realized in language and are often institutionally enforced through texts. Where there exists linguistic evidence of injustice, exploitation, prejudice or deception, we would argue that **SFL** is the model of choice if only because of its concerns with **social context**, seen as central in **functional theory**.

Topic-72: Lexico-grammatical Tools for Text Analysis

SFL attempts to describe and explain multiple **aspects of meaning** and to show how they relate to each other. Each area of analysis has its own set of descriptive terms, which provide the ‘toolbox’ that can be used in **critical commentaries** on texts and on communicative interaction in **specific social settings**. Halliday and Webster (2014) illustrate the analysis of texts using:

- a) Analysis of the **linguistic elements** that express experience of the world and of our own consciousness. They used Process, and Participant and Circumstances analysis which are the main components of the transitivity system enable us to organize, represent and understand our perceptions of the world. They form what is known as the **ideational component**.
- b) Analysis of the **linguistic elements** that express roles, attitudes, demands and social & personal relations including mood, modality, appraisal, politeness. This interpersonal component is seen as ‘acting out social relationships’.

c) Analysis of the **linguistic elements** that serve to **construct cohesive and coherent chunks** of language in use including means of reference, rhetorical structure theory and thematic structure. This is known as the **textual component**.

Lets have a look on the following headlines.

- (i) UK falls into deflation
(ii) UK's period of deflation to recover within weeks
(iii) Will deflation affect your lifestyle?

In (i) we have a finite declarative clause purportedly representing a fact. The major Process *falls* is designated as a Material Process with the Actor *UK* falling *into deflation*. Since the process is metaphorical and clearly a negative act, deflation is seen as an undesirable place which is seen in the new information. In contrast to (i) above, example (ii) gives a positive message representing a speedy recovery as from an illness. The substance of the whole clause in (i) is condensed into a Nominal Group (*UK's period of deflation*). This enables it to become Subject of a clause and Actor of a Material Process (*recover*). It is presented as 'Given' or presupposed, shared knowledge. The whole headline is a non-finite clause where the infinitive verb (*to recover*) carries a future meaning. The headline (iii) is a question addressed directly to the readers, presumably to attract them to an article relating deflation to their personal circumstances. It clearly illustrates the interpersonal function of the interrogative clause and differs grammatically from (i) and (ii) above in terms of Mood which are both declarative clauses. Other **SFL tools include:**

Statistical comparison techniques

Comparisons of lexical density and frequency

Rhetorical Structure Theory

Corpus linguistics

Lexis and Collocation

Other aspects of lexical study of interest have been collocation, connotation and usage in specific varieties and contexts. Collocation concerns the specific **co-text** of a word and the way the combination of words in a phrase can carry significant changes in meaning. Thus, for example,

the word *family* takes on specific positive or negative values depending on the context of use and its collocates. Family members, such as *brother* and *sister*, take on different senses in political groups where they are used as terms of address to express solidarity with other members of a perceived group.

Transitivity in SLF

A widely used tool of analysis in CDA is the SFL transitivity system, which should not be confused with the simpler transitive/intransitive dichotomy in traditional grammar. In SFL transitivity analysis, three categories can be identified: *processes*, *participants* and (optionally) *circumstances*. As far as CDA is concerned, when realised in discourse, this is a focus of analysis in the critical evaluation of **content** and **ideology**. Consider the following example (1) from a recent newspaper article, which is a reply to a rhetorical question given by the journalist: ‘But can we trust Mr. Cameron’s promises?’ The Process in the clause has been written in red.

(1) His government (Actor) has overseen dramatic increases in most forms of taxation. This clause clearly presents Cameron’s government as allowing increases in taxation, but does not emphasise on government’s total responsibility for it.

Example: (2) His government (Actor) *has* dramatically increased most forms of taxation. Moreover, the writer could have avoided presenting the government as an Actor in this case and so deflected responsibility.

Example (3) Most forms of taxation (Actor) *have* increased dramatically under his government. ‘Under his government’ is here a Circumstance: Location (in time):

Group and Clause

Nominal groups are also used as participants in clauses. For example, in the following examples from Blair's speech the italicised nominal groups represent the constructed abstract concept of some kind of unified economic reality.

(1) *The modern world* is swept by change.

(2) *This new world* challenges business to be innovative and creative, to improve performance continuously, to build new alliances and ventures.

(3) But *it* also challenges government to create and execute a new approach to industrial policy.

In linguistic terminology the abstract nominal group can take on a variety of grammatical roles, such as Subject of a clause fulfilling the role of Goal in (1) and of Actor in (2) and (3). This same abstract 'world' is itself presented as a powerful force that can influence not only the functioning of business but also, in (3), of government. This construct forms the basis of the rest of the speech which goes on to present 'it' as the reason for 'a culture of enterprise' and 'commercial success' in everything from government. Fairclough (2001) points out linguistic characteristics that pervade neo-capitalist discourses. One of the foremost is that processes are presented without accountable human agents. Other characteristics are the use of a timeless historical present tense that implies a general truth and the unquestioning statement of controversial policies.

Lecture-17

Metaphor and CDA

Topic-73: Introduction – Metaphor and CDA

According to Carl John, **metaphor analysis** has been gaining credence as a profitable tool in critical discourse studies (CDS). **Cognitive approaches** to metaphor, assert that metaphor is not merely about how we talk about something, but more significantly, how we may think about particular subjects in systematic ways. Lakoff and Johnson 1980; Kövecses 2002; Goatly 2007) argue that examining its realizations in text and talk can help us discern dominant and structured ways with which people conceive **aspects of reality**. Particular metaphors can be strategically deployed to construct and perpetuate particular worldviews and versions of reality for addressees. Furthermore, the analysis of metaphor can help probe ideological structures and foundations in text and talk. In short, metaphor can no longer be seen as merely rhetorical or decorative, but also **constitutive of reality**, and acknowledged for its **ideological character**. It is this ideological potential that makes metaphor analysis an appropriate tool for critical research. Carl's (2019) focuses on **cognitive view of metaphor** as a product of embodied experience. This needs to be complemented with a consideration of the context in which it is used. He further says that **metaphor analysis** of promotional discourses, is beyond language, especially visual image in contemporary discourse and communication. In recent years, there has been some interest in the more dynamic, ad hoc and contingent cognitive operations related to metaphor during discourse. This had led to some critical scholars giving attention to what is known as conceptual blending theory (Fauconnier and Turner 2002). It is cognitive in nature, and plays a great role in CDA because it allows for greater creativity and strategy, as well as contextual and communicative specificity in metaphor production.

Topic-74: Metaphor and Cognition

Metaphor is seen as a **cognitive process** that involves conceptualizing one thing in terms of another. The metaphorical expressions found in language are, therefore, deemed to be the realizations of the kinds of concepts held at the cognitive level. Metaphor, in this regard, is at once a process of the mind and its signification in the form of linguistic or semiotic realizations. Our

ordinary conceptual system, in terms of thinking and acting is fundamentally metaphorical in nature. Thus, metaphor exists in our thinking, and expressed unconsciously in text and talk.

In classical CMT, metaphor encompasses a mental process where a target domain is conceptualized in terms of a source domain. For example, students and their journey to education may be expressed in a metaphorical way. Students can be considered the travelers on the journey. The difficulties they face as a part of their education can be considered hurdles of the path, and their goals can be conceived of as destinations. These linguistic realizations can also define the details of this path-oriented forward movement and specify the kind of movement in which participants are supposedly engaged. For example, **head start** and a **step ahead** add a competitive quality, specifying the movement to be a kind of race where some participants have the advantage of starting before the others or of being ahead. Education becomes a competitive activity in its framing as race. For critical research, such insights relating to metaphor are important because they provide an indication of how particular topics are conceptualized. And how such thinking may condition participants to act in particular ways in relation to the topics at hand (Lakoff and Johnson, 1980). A key insight of CMT is that **conceptual metaphors** have their origins in our **embodied experiences**, especially as infants (Lakoff and Johnson 1980). For instance, the experience of serious illness forcing us to physically lie down generates the **orientational metaphor** sickness and death are down.

Similarly, the nature of sight where our field of vision acts as a boundary delineating what we can see gives rise to the ontological **metaphorical concept** visual fields are containers. For instance, from a young age we learn to crawl and move to the objects we want. The experience of being path-oriented - the metaphor journey is derived from here. Such embodied experiences are captured in basic knowledge structures known as **image schemas**. The path image schema, for instance, has its basis in our experience of (forward) motion, and encompasses a starting location and a destination, the path between these two points (Chilton, 1996). According to Lakoff and Johnson (2003), the metaphors which are generated by **blending constitutes** are in short-term mental representations. While, **conceptual metaphors** are part of knowledge structures that are in long-term memory. Which view of metaphor to lean towards would depend on whether the analyst is more interested in the broader ideological patterns and structures that imbue texts or the

cognitive processes of meaning construction and metaphor production in specific discourse contexts and episodes (Hart 2014).

Topic-75: Metaphor, Context and Discourse

Analyses of metaphor choice and use need to consider specificities of the context, broadly conceived, and their interactions with embodied experience. According to Carl, blending theory plays a vital role to understand the context-relevant material. The conceptual formation based on embodied experience does not take place in a vacuum to begin with; **Contextual factors**, e.g. social organization, architecture, national culture, political governance, etc. shape our physical environment and our interaction with this environment (Chilton 1996). Furthermore, even after childhood when embodied concepts have more fully developed, **context** affects what **metaphorical concepts** are actually drawn on as well as how they are specifically developed for use. While much metaphor use may not be particularly conscious. **Contextual dynamics** may in fact cause metaphor use to be highly strategic. Discourse participants may intentionally deploy particular metaphors to frame topics in self advantageous ways in discursive contexts where objectives are reasonably fixed, like in a debate or promotional campaign.

Considering the social context of metaphor use as a part of discourse is in fact central to the practice of CDS, which sees discourse as both socially-constituted and constitutive. Metaphor, even if partly based in embodied experience, is also a function of **pragmatic choices** and never independent of its context of use. Contextual variables can also be located in **historical** experience and memory, i.e. divergent socio-historical experiences, national cultures and political ideologies going back decades if not centuries. Such as in the case of Germany's experience with National Socialism, has caused the **metaphor** to branch out into variant but interconnected discourse traditions. If precise knowledge is absent, **context-specific** uses and development of metaphor can be entrenched. Some metaphors have been appropriated and perpetuated in the service of particular social and economic ideologies, and have become implicated in hegemonic attempts for **social domination** (Goatly, 2007). The motivated and strategic nature of metaphor in the **discourse context** is given explicit attention in Steen's (2008, 2011) **three-dimensional model** of metaphor consisting of the linguistic, conceptual and communicative dimensions, where each dimension is separate but related. The **linguistic dimension** pertains to the linguistic form taken by the

metaphor, where it can be constructed, for example, in the form of an analogy or simile, a **regular metaphor**, or even indirectly, such as when the target is not directly realized in the text. The **conceptual dimension** of metaphor relates to the commonly invoked delineation of metaphors as novel or conventional. More significantly, at the **communicative dimension**, metaphors can be categorized as deliberate or non-deliberate. **Deliberate metaphors**, through the way they are communicated, are recognized as metaphors and “ineluctably shift the perspective of the addressee from the local topic of a message to another **conceptual domain** from which that local topic is to be re-viewed” (Steen 2008). Taking a more moderate position, Ng and Koller (2013) suggest that rather than effecting **radical conceptual** change, deliberate metaphors can also serve to reinforce and elaborate existing conceptualizations, especially when the metaphors used are highly conventional in the discursive context. The identification of **deliberate metaphor** is likely to be less problematic when we turn our attention to other semiotic modes, especially visual and multi-modal metaphor. Koller’s (2005) study of visual metaphor, shows that ‘metaphors of war’ are used in sports and games, i.e. images of boxing and wrestling. Such metaphors share the semantic feature of ‘competitiveness’ indicates that their occurrence form a cohesive underlying conceptual cluster that characterizes the **social practice** of business fields, e.g. marketing. Considering them alongside verbal metaphor would also give a more comprehensive picture of the concepts purveyed. If metaphor is truly a conceptual phenomenon that can be realized across semiotic modes (though in **mode-specific** ways), we would be remiss not to give attention to metaphor beyond the verbal mode in critical research. Considering visual and **multi-modal metaphor** would be a good start in Critical Discourse Analysis.

Topic-76: Metaphor in Multi-modal Texts

Carl has given an example how metaphor can be found in the **analysis of promotional** material of an educational institute. According to him, **multi-modal analysis** is a key element to analyze the advertisements of educational institutes because, without verbal-visuals, ads give vague meanings. Much has been written about how the practices of the market, including discursive practices, have become entrenched in higher education (Mautner 2005, Lin 2009 and Brown 2011). Even non profit organizations have adopted practices intended to boost organizational efficiency and competitiveness, in order to succeed in a higher education market. Such developments are also found in govt. ads, in this context, **annual reports** have become key

multi-modal branding and promotional texts directed at stakeholders. A highly designed text which contains the use of metaphor, provide insight into how organizations represent themselves in an effort to **engender favorable audience** dispositions towards themselves. In the SMU annual report, such text was found: Organization is living organism; and Organization is person. Such use of metaphors are considered highly dominant, even though an organization consists of animate as well as inanimate aspects, it is discursively ascribed traits, abilities and identities of living beings when conceptualized as a living organism. In the SMU report, the organization's development and increasing success are represented in terms of a living being evolving and having **grown tremendously in size**. While second expression is highly idiomatic, we are likely to see its use here as conscious and deliberate, representing the organization as a person, but not the one it once was. Presumably, this person has grown to become more mature and now has a *growing reputation*. Organizations can also be depicted as engaging in physical activity associated with living beings, with the most significant of these is in the form of (forward) movement, often used to frame an organization's change and development. Hence, the organization is described as being on a journey, having moved beyond being a predominantly management university, and capable of reaching even greater heights. Other times, the journey is specified to be a quest e.g., advancing the quest for knowledge, with a clear sense of purpose. Derived from the path schema, the notion of 'quest' foregrounds the path and especially destination components of the schema, where it is clear, in this case, that the endpoint is knowledge. The organization also uses a roadmap to help propel it [self] well into the next decade and make the leap to scale greater heights. As we can see, the organization is described as having developed and continuing development and success through metaphors that represent it as a dynamic actor engaged in purposeful self-propelled activity. In terms of orientation, the metaphorical expressions define this movement to be a combination of both forward and upward.



Verbal	metaphor:	thinking	is	racing.
Visual	metaphor:	organization	is	runner.

Multi-modal metaphor: fulfilling vision is running.

The cover occupies a highly salient position, the representation encapsulated in the image is also prioritized, becoming a sort of organizing idea for the whole document. The organization, as metonymically represented by the person in graduation attire, is depicted to be running on an ascending path. The run itself appears to represent the organization's process of fulfilling its 2025 vision, which, as the verbal text suggests, is to become 'A GREAT UNIVERSITY'. This process entails a series of steps in the areas of *Transformative Education*, *Cutting Edge Research* etc., each visually represented as a step up the ascending path, eventually reaching the goal. An instance of multi modal metaphor, with the visual depiction of running on an ascending path representing the process of fulfilling the organization's vision illuminated by the verbal text. That the image depicts the person as nearing the goal rather than at the start of the path emphasizes the importance of reaching the endpoint. In this case, giving more attention to particular elements of the path **schema** from which the run metaphor is derived gives rise to an emphasis on **goal-orientedness**, an attribute ascribed to the organization. An explanation of **metaphor in discourse** would, therefore, need to consider sociocultural and discursive contexts.

Anthropomorphic Metaphors allow us to make sense of phenomena in the world in human terms – terms that we can understand on the basis of our own motivations, goals, actions, and characteristics (Lakoff and Johnson, 2003). **The use of both visual and multi-modal metaphor make communication highly effective.**

Lecture-18

Rhetoric and Argumentation

Topic-77: Introduction: classical rhetoric and new rhetoric

According to *Kienpointner*, ancient and modern traditions of rhetoric and argumentation can be useful for **Critical Discourse Studies** because they provide important research tools for the critical analysis of **spoken** or **written** texts e.g. tools for the description and critical evaluation of argumentative texts.

Classical Rhetoric: In Europe, **rhetoric and argumentation** were established as serious disciplines by Aristotle (384–322 BC), whose **Topics** and **Rhetoric** are still to be considered as milestones of human thought. Whereas rhetoric later focused more narrowly on **stylistics**, **Aristotle mainly conceived rhetoric as a theory of argumentation**. Aristotle described rhetoric as the **mono-logical** counterpart of dialectic. Both disciplines are not limited to any particular domain of subjects. **Dialectic** is described in Aristotle's *Topics* as the art of **philosophical disputation**, that is, the art of supporting a thesis in a dialogue without contradictions. Aristotle defined **rhetoric** “as an ability to see the available means of persuasion” (cf. Kennedy, 2007: 37).

Three types of proof:

- **Logos** - proof by the arguments presented in the speech.
- **Ethos** - proof through the credibility of the character of the speaker
- **Pathos** - proof by the emotional disposition of the audience.

The term **Modus Barbara** is used to understand logical proofs deeply, i.e. “All A are B; all B are C; therefore, all A are C”, “All human beings are mortal; all Greeks are human beings; therefore, all Greeks are mortal”. However, Aristotle also insisted that the possibility to argue for both sides of a controversial issue, which is unique to **dialectic** and **rhetoric**, should not be abused and that it is not acceptable to argue for “what is debased” (Kennedy, 2007). Aristotle optimistically assumes that **ultimately truth** will prevail. The term *topos* can be defined as a combination of a device to find arguments and a guarantee which grants the plausibility of the step from arguments to conclusion. It also has some other functions such as a

general, **law-like**, statement. In order to look at the **double function** of the *topos*, Aristotle recommends to look at the positive or negative effects/consequences of an action. The search formula could be reconstructed as follows: “Look at the good/bad consequences C1, C2. . . , Cn of an action A”. Arguments based on good or bad consequences of actions are indispensable within everyday argumentation. Later on, these were called **Pragmatic Arguments** by Perelman/Olbrechts-Tyteca. Aristotle mainly focused on rhetoric as a theory of plausible argumentation. Therefore, he has considered the other stages of speech production important, i.e. formulation (style). He deals with the virtues of style, with a focus on clarity, but also with remarks on grammatical correctness, adequacy, brevity and embellishment (figures of speech such as metaphor, hyperbole, irony, parallelism, etc.).

Aristotle suggests using something beautiful as the source domain of the metaphor and gives the advice that **metaphors** should be neither ridiculous nor unclear. **Metaphor** is said to create a kind of intellectual pleasure in the audience because it offers some cognitive surprise, which leads to a growth of knowledge in a relatively easy way. For example, using **stubble** for *old age* creates a transfer, which is easily recognized because of the common genus “things that have lost their bloom” (Kennedy 2007). Therefore, according to Aristotle, **metaphor** is not merely a kind of stylistic embellishment, but also has a cognitive dimension (Ricœur 1975; Rapp 2002). As far as style and figures of speech are concerned, a trichotomy of styles (grand or magnificent style, middle or moderate style, simple or humble style) was developed and the inventory of rhetorical figures was enlarged considerably (Kienpointner 2011).

Topic 78: New Rhetoric

The philosopher Petrus Ramus (1515–1572) suggested that **rhetoric** should be restricted to a theory of stylistic techniques which found many followers. René Descartes’s (1596–1650) verdict against all forms of merely probable reasoning deprived **rhetorical argumentation** theories of their status as a serious discipline. Thus, rhetoric was gradually reduced to a **theory of style** (Genette 1970). The most important **revival of rhetoric** was developed by the Belgian philosopher Chaim Perelman (1912–1984) and the Belgian sociologist Lucie Olbrechts Tyteca (1899–1987) in their famous *Traité de ’argumentation* (1983 [1958]). Perelman/Olbrechts Tyteca tried to show that outside of disciplines such as formal logic and mathematics, especially in the fields of political and religious argumentation, there is no room for proofs *more geometrico*. They

claim that all arguments are directed towards an audience and that their plausibility has to be judged in relation to that audience. However, in spite of this “dominant role of the audience” (van Eemeren et al. 2014: 262), the **New Rhetoric** avoids radical relativism by the introduction of the “universal audience” (Perelman and Olbrechts-Tyteca 1983: 39). Rational argumentation is an appeal to the universal audience, and goes beyond the acceptability for a specific audience. Although it is very difficult to define the universal audience, it can be approximately described as the totality of all normal adult human beings.

New Rhetoric's most attractive contribution to the study of argumentation is its monumental **typology of argumentative schemes**. On the one hand, this is a revival of Aristotelian rhetoric and dialectic, with approximately 30 **argument** schemes corresponding to most of the Aristotelian *topoi* (cf. Perelman and Olbrechts-Tyteca 1983: 255). On the other hand, empirically interesting new types of arguments are integrated in this classification. The weaknesses of this typology, however, have also been shown by the subsequent literature. Perelman/Olbrechts Tyteca do not establish a general model of argumentation and they do not present their argument schemes explicitly, nor do they sufficiently discuss the problems of the delimitation of their schemes and their critical evaluation.

Topic-79: Contemporary Argumentation Theories

British philosopher Stephen Toulmin (1922- 2009), first presented a famous **model of argumentation** in his book - *The Uses of Argument* (1958). Toulmin saw his model as more suitable for the description of reasonable procedures of everyday argumentation than the inference schemes of formal logic. Moreover, he assumes that the categories of his model are **field independent**, whereas specific instances of argumentation belong to different fields of argumentation (e.g., law, business, politics). The six categories in Toulmin's model are functionally motivated (Toulmin, 1984). Toulmin's model has been widely used for the analysis of the structure of **everyday arguments** and still is enormously influential in contemporary argumentation theory (Eemeren, 2014). The Canadian philosopher Douglas Walton has revolutionized the study of fallacies. **Walton has developed a “New Dialectic”**, which analyses and evaluates arguments according to their goals in different types of dialogues: For example, negotiation (a joint effort to make a deal, that is, to maximize one's own benefits and to find a compromise), eristic dialogue (a verbal fight, where all participants try to win and release powerful

emotions). Walton suggests that traditional fallacies are better viewed as weak, but not necessarily fallacious arguments, which, However, can shift the burden of proof in the absence of strong evidence and more conclusive arguments. Walton considers such arguments as instances of “presumptive reasoning” (Macagno and Walton 2014). From 1984 onwards, the Dutch linguists Frans H. van Eemeren and Rob Grootendorst (1944–2000) developed the framework of **Pragma Dialectics**. This can be called the most comprehensive and most influential **research programme** within contemporary argumentation theory (van Eemeren and Grootendorst 1984). **Pragma-Dialectics** combines the study of speech acts occurring in argumentative discussions (“pragmatics”) with insights from normative dialectic (“dialectics”). A reconciliation of normative and empirical approaches to the study of argumentation has been its general goal from the very beginning.

In order to achieve the multiple goals of argumentation studies, van Eemeren and Grootendorst (2004) suggest five “estates” of research:

1. In the philosophical estate, the concept of “**reasonableness**” has to be clarified, because it is fundamental to all argumentation theories and provides them with a philosophical basis.
2. In the theoretical estate, a theory is derived from the philosophical premises. In the case of Pragma Dialectics, the theory regards each argumentation as a critical discussion between parties who try to resolve a difference of opinion by testing the acceptability of the standpoints concerned” (van Eemeren and Grootendorst 2004).
3. In the analytical estate, the systematic application of “reconstruction transformations” (deletion, addition, substitution, permutation) helps to reconstruct the argumentative structure of a given text, by deleting speech acts which are not relevant for the resolution of a conflict of opinion (e.g., greetings). Or by adding relevant material that has been left implicit (e.g., premises), by substituting confusingly ambiguous expressions by unequivocal formulations, for example, **rhetorical questions** by statements.
4. In the empirical estate, qualitative research is carried out in order to show how **argumentative moves** e.g. the expression of standpoints, arguments and doubt and **argument structure** (complex

argumentation) can be reconstructed on the basis of different types of argumentative indicators i.e. connectives, particles, adverbs, verbs (Snoeck Henkemans 2007).

5. In the practical estate, Pragma-Dialecticians try to enhance argumentative competence by furthering reflection about argumentation by making its results accessible to a wider public. Within the last few years, **Pragma-Dialectics** has been extended by van Eemeren and Peter Houtlosser (1956–2008). He has introduced the important concept of “**strategic maneuvering**”, that is, “the continual efforts made in all moves that are carried out in argumentative discourse to keep the balance between reasonableness and effectiveness” (van Eemeren 2010: 40).

Topic-80: Tools for Critical Research

According to *Kienpointner*, one of the most important means of political argumentation is the **Pragmatic Argument**. Pragmatic Arguments are a type of causal argumentation which evaluates political decisions, initiatives and activities by pointing out their **positive** or **negative** effects. In his discussion, *Kienpointner* has focused only on the positive version of **Pragmatic Argument**, i.e. If act A has positive effects B, C, D [. . .] and has no, or fewer, or less important negative effects than an alternative act X. Therefore, Act A should be done/should be evaluated positively. Some critical questions concerning Pragmatic Arguments could be:

- i) Does act A really have the effects B, C, D [. . .]?
- ii) Are B, C, D [. . .] really positive/negative?
- iii) Does A really have no/fewer/only less important positive/negative effects than alternative act X?
- iv) Does act A have further effects?

Critical Discourse Studies have often taken up argument schemes such as the **Pragmatic Argument** as an analytical tool. Following the topical tradition, argument schemes have been called *topoi*, and lists of more abstract, Aristotelian *topoi* (Fairclough 2012). Following a **discourse-historical perspective**, Ruth Wodak and Martin Reisigl show that certain aspects of **political argumentation**, such as thematic threads in discourse on war, immigration or environment can be profitably analyzed with the help of context-specific “**topoi**”. For example,

the “topos of threat”, the “topos of imminent danger”, the “topos of history”, the “topos of economic usefulness” or the “topos of exploitation”.

Figures of speech and the verbal presentation of arguments

From Aristotle onwards, metaphor has received most attention as a **rhetorical** figure. In more recent theories of metaphor, its **cognitive impact**, which was already recognized by Aristotle has been discussed by Ricœur, Lakoff and Johnson. As **conventional metaphors** shape our view of reality, and **creative metaphors** can even change our view of reality, they can no longer be seen as mere ornaments of speech, but have a clear **argumentative value** (Ng, Perelman and Olbrechts Tyteca 1983, Pielenz 1993). This view can be generalized for many of the **traditional figures of speech**, i.e. metonymy, hyperbole, irony, rhetorical question, etc. and; some of them have even been explicitly designed as techniques of argumentation, e.g., concessio (to concede a point of minor importance, but to insist on the most important standpoint) or praemunitio (to anticipate counter arguments).

Rhetorical figures can generally be seen as techniques of **strategic manoeuvring** (verbal presentation). The strategic use of figures of speech in (political) discourse is described in many contributions within Critical Discourse Studies, e.g., Wodak 2011, Fairclough and Fairclough 2012). Combining central concepts of **Critical Discourse Studies** with historiography and corpus linguistics, John Flowerdew shows how the history of Hong Kong in the years before 1997 and afterwards can be described as a struggle for ideological hegemony through discursive means (Flowerdew 2004). According to Flowerdew (2012), rhetorical strategies such as the use of indexicals or certain figures of speech are important discursive devices in order to achieve the goals of discursive hegemony. For example, newspaper-articles, or political speeches are designed for specific purposes. **Old trichotomy** of tropes, figures of diction and figures of thought are being replaced by more consistent and explicit **typologies** based on linguistic units (e.g., phonemes, morphemes, phrases, clauses, sentences etc.) and four stylistic operations (addition, deletion, substitution, permutation) (Plett 2000; Kienpointner 2011).